

Čáw Pawá Láakni They Are Not Forgotten

SAHAPTIAN PLACE NAMES ATLAS
of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla

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WITH

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PART I. TESTIMONIES

Waapaxwináwaša 'Speaking Words of Testimony'

Testimony has served and still serves a purpose in Tribal life. Following the oral tradition, it is a way to pass down information in a public forum to those bearing witness to an event. This testimony teaches life lessons, morality, and consequences of actions. When an eagle feather, a sacred object, drops to the floor in the Tribal longhouse, a veteran is asked to tell a war story. At a naming ceremony, an elder will give testimony on the importance of the name being passed down. In this tradition, what is spoken is the truth of the world, a proclamation. Testimony is a deliberate, thoughtful form of speech that carries gravity in the fewest words possible.

Pawiyáninxana

‘They Used to Travel Around’

Wišpúš (Eugene S. Hunn) and Daniel B. Haug

In this atlas, we map traditional travel routes through this Tribal homeland by documenting the places well known to Sahaptian-speaking peoples of the Columbia Plateau. These named sites include villages, fishing locations, hunting camps, and root-digging areas, as well as sites that point to identifiable features that were important to the ancestors. The sites range from places that are only a few meters in area to entire regions. In addition to the place names documented here with maps, there are named places within the traditional lands of other tribes, as defined by modern boundaries. The ancestors visited their relatives and trading partners in other groups beyond the homeland to maintain kinship, nurture protective alliances, obtain new trade items, and

tend to reciprocal relationships. Because these peoples relied on nature’s gifts for continued survival, there was variation in travel and they knew alternative areas for gathering and hunting.

One of the goals of this atlas is to document that Tribal members knew the land intimately. There was no way for us to recreate the rich and varied landscape as it existed before contact with white people. We have done our best to represent this landscape by using a combination of topography and low-resolution satellite imagery to create an impressionistic representation of the landscape. The place names in this atlas are only a small number of all of the named places that Tribal people knew and know. It is important to remember that more distant areas were often well-known to Tribal

ancestors even though today these areas are the primary responsibility of neighboring tribes.

Some of the maps in this atlas represent patterns of use with an intensity of shading in a range of colors. The darker the shading, the more likely an area was to support the traditional uses depicted, based on our sample of named sites. To better understand this distribution, these maps include the points, named sites, and areas that were used to create the shading. ■



TRADITIONAL USE AREAS OF THE CAYUSE, UMATILLA, AND WALLA WALLA TRIBES. This map shows the patterns of land use of the three language groups and how they intersected with one another. Light blue (Walla Walla), pink (Umatilla), and yellow (Cayuse) represent the core areas used by each Tribe. Areas used jointly by two of the Tribes are shown in red if they were used extensively by both the Umatilla and the Cayuse, in green if they were used by the Cayuse and the Walla Walla, and in dark blue if they were used by the Walla Walla and the Umatilla. The areas used by all three are shown in brown.



USE OF LAND. This place name example, *Šapákičt*, meaning ‘hang it up’, is located in the vicinity of Walla Walla, Washington.



Wiyá'uyt Wapáxwini

'We Are Beginning Our Testimony'

Kakinaš (E. Thomas Morning Owl), Sisaawipam (Roberta L. Conner), Pinawoolenmay (Modesta J. Minthorn), and Weyétmascaimay (Jennifer Karson Engum)

In this atlas, we share the knowledge of our teachers with the general public. More importantly, we share these teachings with our Tribal youth and young adults, giving them a glimpse of the vast knowledge that their elders carry. In compiling and presenting this information, many of our teachers stressed the need to save traditional knowledge and a willingness to use modern tools to do so. While presenting information in this way can never replace how teachers share their knowledge and wisdom by example and in stories, using contemporary methods such as digital recording and computer mapping allows us to efficiently pass critical knowledge on to younger Tribal members, many of whom are unable to experience traditional teaching.

It was passed on from my aunt at Lapwai that our great great grandparents fed Lewis and Clark's expedition up at what they call Wawáwi, north of Clarkston along the Snake River. When they saw these people come, they didn't know what they were and said, "Tuk wawo wa?" "What are they?" and after they saw Crooked Hair, they told them that they were an expedition from the east. So they fed the expedition there, and when they left, they went on down the river, and the first group they came upon, from our people, was at the mouth of the Tucannon River. There was a permanent home there at Tucannon and a few miles down the river was the mouth of the Palouse River. There was another encampment there.

Up in the mountains, after we'd get through cleaning up the camp, we would put up the poles in the fir trees for the next group. My son worked for the U.S. Forest Service way back in the John Day Wilderness Area, and he used to come across these poles and he wondered what they were. He asked me, and I told him they were tent poles for the next campers.

The Grande Ronde Valley was our Eden. Everything was there for the people. The Grande Ronde had everything. The camas root was in abundance. When the seasons came there, the people from

here went over to the Grande Ronde Valley and dug the camas. Catherine Creek was a main source of salmon and steelhead. There were fishing sites all along Catherine Creek. The Grande Ronde River was one of the main sources from Hilgard to Perry. On down where Elgin is was a main crossroads for the people to travel from Walla Walla over into Wallowa country.

—Átway Tekípš
(Dan Motanic)

There were two kinds of places where we lived, temporary and permanent, because the people moved often. They moved here and there to gather food, especially roots. Then, in certain times of the season, they would have a salmon run somewhere, and that brought the people together.

When the people left an area, they always left it clean so the enemy would not know who had been there. They also had summer areas they lived in and areas they went to in the winter. Some of the people went up to the mountains in the summer at huckleberry time. One custom they had until just recently. When we were kids, we'd go camping in the

mountains, and if dad would get a deer, it would be shared in the camp.

—Toke e shów
(Lydia French Johnson)

We still live largely in the place the Creator gave us. While this reservation is only a part of a much larger land use base, it is very precious to us. The Confederated Tribes of the Umatilla Indian Reservation (CTUIR) was created during very difficult, protracted treaty negotiations by ancestors who knew that we could only continue our way of life in perpetuity if we had a place set aside for that express purpose. The thinking of the treaty commissioners who represented the United States was typical for that era. They assumed that Indian people would survive only by becoming like white people, and they expected reservations to serve as a transitional location toward that end. Instead, this area of land called the Umatilla Indian Reservation has become the stronghold for our Tribal culture and our Tribal resurgence.

Hundreds of generations of ancestors have known this land intimately from living on it for thousands of years. Every creek, spring, pond, swale, saddle, box



Átway Twáway (Inez Spino-Reves) prepares lamprey eel for drying.

canyon, draw, and peak witnessed our people's long history here, and our people knew all the features of this land. Our children also must know this land if they are going to take care of it when they inherit this responsibility. This book is one way to introduce the features of our land to our people and others who live here now. While this is not a traditional way of knowing and learning, this atlas may provoke discussions, questions, field trips, and kinship activities that help us appreciate what our people have known for so very long—that our relationship with our land is tantamount to our core cultural identity.

The animals, plants, and places were given names by the Creator, and Coyote, in turn, taught their names to our people. The ancestors kept the stories of these names alive over thousands of years, as each generation passed the knowledge to the next. The land hears our songs, warms to our footsteps, responds to our prayerful manners, and is alive with its own stories. Each generation inherits responsibility for the land and all that live in it and on it, and it is our duty to keep the names and the stories alive. We cannot let them slide into oblivion while we have the opportunity to do otherwise.

Ours is an oral tradition. But since the days of the boarding schools, no matter how tenacious we have been about maintaining cultural traditions, we have by necessity become more reliant on the written record. It is a sign of the times we have endured that we lost some of the listening and remembering skills our

people once had. A book, however, puts knowledge in a person's hands, before a person's eyes. A book is accessible whenever the holder opens it. It can travel the land as a companion to young people as they become familiar with traditional places. A book preserves and has the potential to restore information into the everyday lexicon of the community. It is affordable and can be expanded, enriched, and corrected by everyone who holds it. A book can be a living document. Tribal members who live far from home can use it to connect to the stories of their homeland.

For two centuries, our people have been engaged in a battle. We have fought to keep our lands, maintain our sovereignty, retain our culture, and convince others that we have no intention of leaving or giving up. We have fought to be free to live as our ancestors did, free to practice our religion, free to go where we please at our leisure. We can never take these freedoms for granted. After surviving the early attempts at genocide, our Tribal confederation was targeted for termination by the United States government in the 1950s. But we are still here. Our people are still defending and restoring our homeland for future generations. While loss has characterized much of our reservation-based history, we must also recognize the resolve with which we have held onto our heritage and our home. In fact, the pressures to sell out, assimilate, and replace our identity with a new one may have served the purpose of making our resolve even more

vigorous. Although it was not the U.S. government's intention, our reservation became a stronghold for our culture.

Decades before contact with the newcomers, horses became an integral part of our lives, greatly expanding the regions to which we could easily travel. By the time President Thomas Jefferson sent Meriwether Lewis and William Clark in search of a river transportation route across North America in 1804–1806, our familiarity with the land had expanded as well. The West was a far cry from the empty canvas Jefferson imagined. Once the lands were known and the region was mapped, the international fight for possession of and title to native lands in the West began in earnest. By the 1850s, the United States had asserted sovereignty over the Oregon Country by the Oregon Treaty of 1846. The next step was to extinguish Indian title to the land and to remove Indian people to reservations. After thousands of years of freedom, our people suffered over 160 years of reservation-centered living. In *The Ten Grandmothers*, by Alice Marriot, Spear Woman says,

"Of course you don't understand my singing" ... (as she sang to the buffalo behind the fence). "Of course you don't know what it's about when I sing about the old days. You're just calves. You don't remember. You were born inside the fence, like my own grandchildren."

Outsiders may think of reservations as internment centers where Indian people are imprisoned or as places to which we have been exiled. In a way, our reservation has become that. After many generations of centralizing Tribal activities on the reservation, some people have become limited in their horizons, thinking that the reservation is the extent of our home instead of including the vast surrounding landscape that our people inhabited for millennia. To prevent Tribal children from becoming like the buffalo calves born behind the fence, many parents and grandparents continue the multigenerational, multisensory, multi-dimensional, and multi-Tribal teaching out in the larger homeland. When these teachers take children to dig, pick, hunt, feast, visit, and engage in activities beyond the boundaries of the reservation, they teach about the land base that is truly our homeland.



Overlooking ʔiṣqúłktpe Creek

This atlas is another way to take our people beyond the fence line. It is a way to tell others about our beloved homeland, that it was named before the Euro-Americans came and wrote their own names on our landforms and waterways. Tribal people are hungry for knowledge of language, landscape, history, and culture, but many have not had and do not have teachers to share this knowledge through traditional ways of knowing. This atlas is just one way we can keep our people's knowledge alive. Others include language documentation and instruction, traditional food gathering and harvesting, and seasonal ceremonial events.

Children used to learn much of this from their extended families in the great outdoor classroom. Fishing, hunting, digging, picking, trapping, grazing stock—all rights reserved in the Treaty of 1855—cannot be taught indoors. Outdoor interaction with the everyday occurrences of changing weather and encounters with wildlife and the physical challenges of navigating the terrain teach how to live in and how to solve problems in our world. This is the kind of knowledge that bound our ancestors together over time and over space and that strengthened our kinship with the land.

When we go to Pilot Rock, Ukiah, Sumpter, Dale, Silvies, Boardman, Umatilla, Irrigon, Heppner, Pasco, Athena, Milton-Freewater, Walla Walla, Dayton, Imbler, La Grande, John Day, Haines, and Baker City, we are home. When we travel to Tygh, Simnasho, Maupin, HeeHee, Satus, White Swan, Celilo, Priest Rapids, Nespelem, Spokane, Pullman, Genessee, Lewiston, Lapwai, Orofino, Missoula, Pablo, Yellowstone, Boise, and Sacramento, we are following the trails of our ancestors.

The mobility of our native people has been carried on through the generations. It was expanded by the introduction of the horse, which vastly affected the distances to which we could travel. We went as far south as California to trade and east toward Yellowstone to hunt buffalo. What may have taken days on foot, now took less time. We still travel nowadays, we still gather our first foods at the appropriate times of the year, but our seasonal rounds are not the only reason for travel. We are no longer principally tied to the food cycle. We travel



CTUIR tribal member Jesse Star on his first buffalo hunt.

for social and economic purposes as well. We travel for work, for powwows, and to attend celebrations, feasts, gatherings, or funerals at neighboring native homelands, where we still have strong relational ties. A journey that would have taken days on horseback, we can do now in hours by car. This ease of mobility allows elders to visit relatives as far as ten hours' drive away.

—Kakinaš
(E. Thomas Morning Owl)

What happens when our people grow up far away from the lands that have been the cradle of our existence? When we do not visit the places that our ancestors knew or when we do not tend to the rituals of honoring those places in prayer, do we deprive ourselves of the insight and wisdom the land provides? If knowledge of the land is a reflection of knowledge of ourselves, do we become separated from our history when we are separated from our land, the place of our history? The answers depend on how well we keep the stories alive and whether we can maintain our inextricable relationship with the land. After over two hundred years of cultural disruption, we are doing the best we can.

The honest truth is that at the beginning of my involvement with this project my knowledge of Tribal place names was limited. I only had basic knowledge and understanding of the more common site names, for La Grande, Kamela, Thornhollow (where I live), and Mission.

So, most of the information I was sifting through was all new to me.

The amount of collaboration between non-Tribal partners and Tribal individuals was amazing and has been central to the development and finalization of this atlas. However, it is the Tribal voice which impresses me, because the Tribal members who collaborated on this project have truly left a mark in this world. Their knowledge of place names in our languages will be passed on to future generations and will help preserve these ties with our ancestors.

There is no question as to what this place names atlas is. Simply put, it is documentation of traditional names of places within the CTUIR boundaries and surrounding areas. The question that is pending is why. As I worked on the atlas, I began to develop the understanding of why the CTUIR might need an atlas like this one. It became clear to me that via the native languages (Umatilla, Walla Walla, Cayuse Nez Perce), the CTUIR had an opportunity to not only express traditional knowledge of our homeland but to a certain extent express and exercise sovereignty.

—Pinawoolenmay
(Modesta J. Minthorn)

Tiičám ku Sínwit 'Lands and Languages'

Wišpúš (Eugene S. Hunn) and Lučá Łamłax (Bruce J. Rigsby)

The Plateau tribes and bands that made agreements at the 1855 Walla Walla Treaty Council—the Yakama, Nez Perce, Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla—were bound through time by kinship, marriage, and economic partnership, in addition to shared languages, beliefs, and experiences of country. Members of the Plateau tribes freely intermarried, limited only by the distances between villages and the taboo against marrying close relatives. Most fishing sites and gathering and hunting areas in the region were frequented by individuals or families of various tribal affiliations. Widespread historic depopulation due to pandemics that adversely affected extended kinship systems made it even more difficult to draw distinctions, since families often acted communally in expeditions, gatherings, and warfare.

Anthropologically, the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla are tribes in the sense of peoples having their own culture and dialect or language, rather than in the sense of political entities controlling defined territories. The *Imatamláma* 'Umatilla' and *Walíulapam* 'Walla Walla' peoples spoke dialects of the Sahaptin language. Umatilla is a dialect of the Columbia River Sahaptin (CRS) subgroup; other speakers of CRS dialects

were the *Takšpašláma* 'John Day', *Qmílláma* 'Rock Creek', *Wayamláma* 'Celilo', *Tinaynuláma* 'Tenino', and *Tayxláma* 'Tygh' peoples. Walla Walla is a dialect of the Northeast Sahaptin (NES) subgroup; other speakers of NES dialects were the *Naxíyampam* 'Snake River', including *Čamnápam* and *Wauyukma*, *Wánapam* 'Wanapum', and *Palíus*, *Pelíuspem* 'Palouse' peoples. (The *Naxíyampam* 'Snake River' people, including *Čamnápam* and *Wauyukma*, are included as Walla Walla in the 1855 Treaty negotiations). The Yakama and *Pšiwáwapam* peoples spoke dialects that belong to Northwest Sahaptin (NWS). Bruce Rigsby first classified the Sahaptin dialects into these three subgroups in his 1965 dissertation.

The terms Sahaptin (the language) and Sahaptian (the family of languages) have often been confused and used interchangeably. The Sahaptian family includes two languages, Sahaptin and Nez Perce. If Umatilla and Walla Walla, Sahaptin dialects, could be considered sister languages or dialects, then Nez Perce is their cousin language. That is, the Nez Perce language is more distantly related to Walla Walla and Umatilla than either of them is to the other. In keeping with this metaphor, the original or Old

Cayuse language would be a sister-in-law of Sahaptian.

The Old Cayuse language, which has had no fluent speakers since the 1940s, is considered a language isolate—that is, it has no demonstrable linguistic relationship to any other indigenous American language. The Old Cayuse language eventually was replaced entirely by the Cayuse Nez Perce dialect, which was itself influenced by the Old Cayuse language. At the time of the Treaty Council, all Cayuse people spoke Cayuse Nez Perce, but whether as their first language we cannot say. It seems that the Old Cayuse language was gradually displaced during recent centuries, perhaps due to early pandemics, substantial tribal intermarriage, adjacent homelands, and cooperative trading and hunting ventures between Cayuse and Nez Perce people.

The treaties divided as they conquered, separating many people who spoke a common dialect or language and sending them off to separate reservations while bringing together people with different linguistic backgrounds. For example, the Palouse and Rock Creek peoples were assigned to the Yakama Nation; the John Day, Celilo, Tenino, and Tygh Valley peoples were assigned to the Warm Springs confederation; and Umatilla and Walla Walla peoples were included with their Cayuse neighbors on the Umatilla Reservation.

The treaties divided the Lower Snake River people between the Walla Walla and the Yakama Tribes. Many Palouse live among the Yakama, while others reside on the Warm Springs and Umatilla Reservations. Many Palouse who fought with the Joseph, Looking Glass, and Whitebird bands of Nez Perces in 1877 now live on the Colville Reservation in Washington. The Cayuse and Nez Perce were heavily intermarried by the time of the Treaty Council, and Cayuse leaders spoke Cayuse Nez Perce at the Council. Old Joseph's mother was Nez Perce, and his father was Cayuse; and, not surprisingly, some Cayuse joined with the Joseph, Looking Glass, and Whitebird bands in 1877. The Wanapum people never agreed to any treaty of

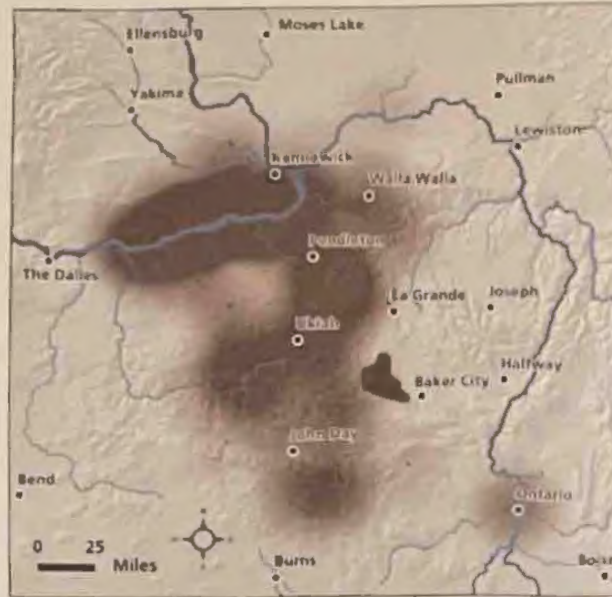


Kakinaš (Thomas Morning Owl) instructs Tamalúut Language Immersion class on construction of a hand drum.

cession and remained at their traditional home at Priest Rapids. Today, because the Wanapum are not a federally recognized tribe, some residents are enrolled with the Yakama Nation and others with the Warm Springs confederacy.

There was no justification for dividing the people and their land along the channels of the Columbia and the Snake, as families lived and owned land on both sides of those rivers. But no reservation lands bridged the main stem of the Columbia. The historic connections that produced the dialect groups were not recognized in the interest of partitioning tribal territories to facilitate American settlement and the coming of the railroad.

The maps on this page show the density of place names in each of the three languages in this atlas. The prevalence of place names spoken in that particular language or dialect is established through the usage of color from light to dark. The maps also demonstrate both the distribution of the place names in each language and where overlap occurs in language usage. ■



LANGUAGE—COLUMBIA RIVER SAHAPTIN. The Columbia River Sahaptin dialect is spoken by those who identify themselves as Umatilla speakers on the Umatilla Reservation. Speakers of this dialect may also reside on the Warm Springs and Yakama Reservations.



LANGUAGE—NORTHEAST SAHAPTIN. The Northeast Sahaptin dialect is associated with those who identify as Walla Walla speakers on the Umatilla Reservation. Wanapum and Palouse descendants may also employ this dialect.



LANGUAGE—MODERN CAYUSE NEZ PERCE. Historical speakers of the Old Cayuse language and those who today use the modern blended Cayuse Nez Perce language can converse with speakers of the Nez Perce language from the Colville and Nez Perce Reservations.



WINTER USE DENSITY. Larger, more permanent villages were occupied in the winter months along the main stems of the Columbia and Snake Rivers.



SUMMER USE DENSITY. Tribal bands moved to higher elevations annually to live in smaller, established camps in order to procure foods, materials, and medicines.

Wéeteskín'ix Cúukwe 'Knowledge From the Earth'

Pítamyanon Maqsmáqs (Phillip E. Cash Cash)

Over millenia, the earth's horizon gradually became less a barrier as the named landscape grew into a rich knowledge base containing an array of information on the local characteristics and features of our traditional homeland and places beyond. Significantly, the transmission and continued existence of this knowledge rest partly on preserving the languages through which many of these place names are spoken and having a clear understanding of the role of place within our collective human experience. To utter words naming a landscape is to evoke deep meanings that have persisted over great lengths of time from a prior perceptual experience or a significant ancestral event.

When we carefully examine such meanings, we can begin to see how the named landscape efficiently organizes information and packages it through language. Armed with such knowledge, our relationships and interactions with the land have purpose, order, and meaning. Like many indigenous cultures throughout the world, as Oscar Kawagley wrote in 1995, the components of this knowledge and the wisdom it brings to bear on the problem of survival grants us the capacity to reconstruct a world that will empower us with sufficient control over our own lives.

Just as knowledge is a way of seeing the world, the earth transformed bears witness to the changes of the past millenia. The impact of colonization, the removal of peoples from ancestral lands, the dispossession or reduction of land, population decline, a shift to a cash economy, and the unabated extraction of natural resources have transformed our lives. The cumulative impacts are apparent historically, although in isolation they often seem insignificant. For example, the removal of Cayuse bands from the Walla Walla region after 1860 may help explain the comparatively sparse documentary record (that is, Cayuse data) for this region.

These disruptions have intensified into a new kind of ecological awareness about the growing impacts of human activity

on the environment. For example, traditional subsistence fishing practices and salmon biodiversity have been significantly transformed due to modern dam-building on major tributaries and elsewhere. Decisions about how salmon fishermen accessed traditional fishing sites were commonly made based on the availability and distribution of key salmon runs. As we are coming to learn, however, this knowledge system now has to take into account the modern historical transformation of our waterways and the impacts these transformations have had on the availability of salmon for subsistence purposes.

The same is true for many of our traditional food-gathering sites, where our once naturally abundant wild foods are beginning to show signs of fading away due to human impacts and climate change. Our ecological knowledge makes us especially sensitive to changing conditions in the surrounding global environment; and our ongoing, common historical experience suggests that these changing conditions will continue unabated.

When an ancestral place name is spoken in our languages, a distinct mental image of a landscape is often formed based on how the descriptive components of each word are assembled. In this imagined space, language speakers are able to discern the unique characteristics of a given locale and to gain a partial understanding of how our ancestors may have viewed and experienced the world around them. Taken as a whole, each place name is a summary representation of a particular locale. It is a view into a world among many possible worlds. This we know because the structure of our languages grasps the nuances of geography, ecology, space, and regional biodiversity. In essence, place names are as much a matter of mind as they are of experience.

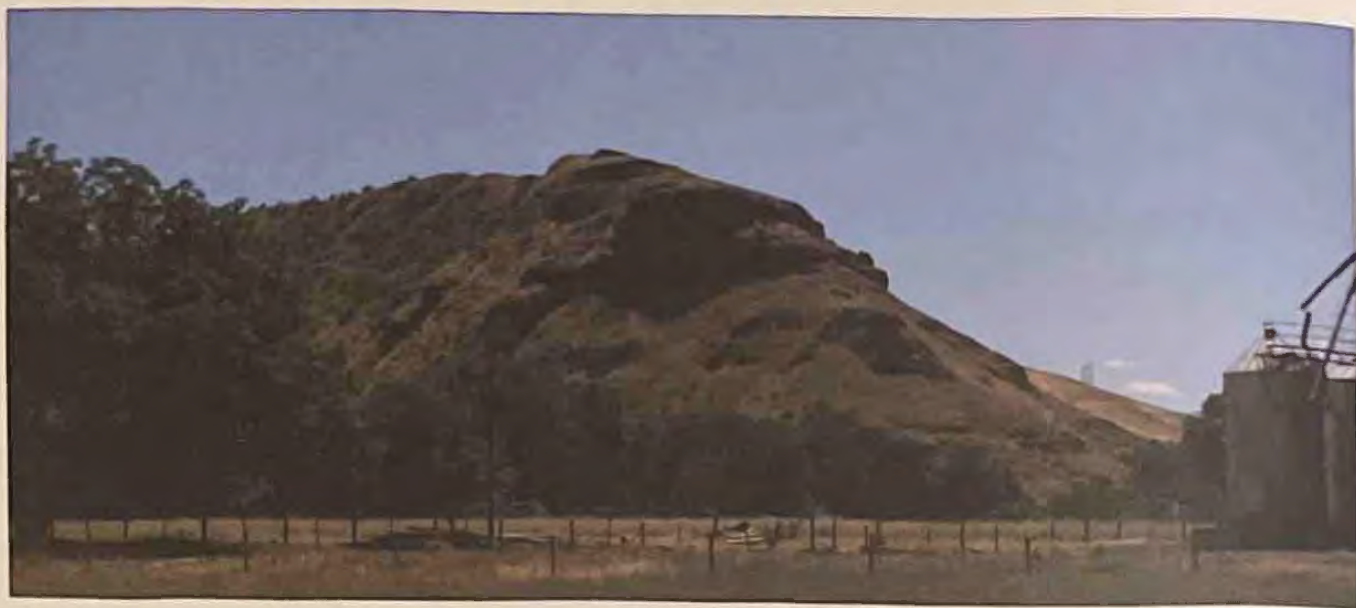
Belonging to a rich and varied topography such as the inland Pacific Northwest, direct experiences of the landscape require a depiction of how land and water occupy regions of space and how such

elements may be oriented with respect to human perspective. Such depictions naturally become deepened in the ancient mind as "places" or "regions." As this experience deepens and becomes more regularized over time, it forms into a kind of localized knowledge that equips people with notions of size, distance, interactional potential, ecology, biodiversity, and identity. The linguistic variability and stability in the grammar of place bear these facts out. But when place names are viewed from the perspective of survival, we immediately sense how central this knowledge is to discerning our overall place in the world.

Historical geographies are made apparent through treaty-based demarcations and reservation-based geographic representations. While these new geographies may seem arbitrary, they have historical and relational meaning derived from our presence in a developing Euro-American nation-state. Similarly, places that refer to landforms and hydrographic features can be directly linked to their regional or local geographies (composed from a set of local environmental elements) and to their spatial perception (how geographic/hydrographic elements occupy regions of



Roberta Williams gathers tree lichen for baking in an earth oven.



Núšnupa 'at the nose' is a place along the Walla Walla River whose geological feature resembles a human nose.

space). Thus, when we consider the conceptual act of naming the land, we tend to use our talk in everyday interactions to locate a place in space, together with its unique characteristics and features.

How we name a place depends not just on our communicative intent but also on our experiences and interactions with it. As the world around us becomes encoded through the language of place, we begin to see an interplay between form (the way something appears) and function (the way a place serves a particular purpose). We may wonder if a landform that expresses a name like *Núšnupa* 'at the nose' can provide other salient information about a locale, as do names like Crossing Place, Swimming Hole, or Good Camp. For example, when a place name describes information relating to form instead of referencing a specific resource or function, then our interactions and perceptions become oriented to form. But because we are beginning to understand the ancestral mind and the way our ancestors perceived and experienced the places they named, we know that more information may be available than meets the eye. Successive interactions with a named place may provide additional cues and situational meanings. One of the questions posed to fluent speakers is this: "At the juncture of two waterways, are you viewing them coming together or separating?"

The key observation here is that a routinely encountered landscape can lead to a preferred perspective or orientation

with regard to the way environmental features are arranged and located in space. For example, a "downriver" orientation and an "upriver" orientation toward the landscape have equal probability. Within our community, speakers tend to prefer the upriver orientation, whereby the rivers and streams are commonly perceived as separating. What this suggests is that the frequency of traveling upriver along a streambed and, hence, viewing the waters separating contribute to a common point of reference. Significantly, this same perspective is found in a recurrent opening line of our traditional mythic narratives: where it is often said, "*Iceyēeye hitolāyana*" "'Coyote was going upriver'." Rarely was *Iceyēeye* depicted as going downriver. Exposure to preferences like this, through mythic narratives or other forms of storytelling, naturally lead to reinforcing a system of thinking or a way of looking at the world.

Other kinds of spatial arrangements have the potential to obtain saliency on a regional scale. For example, when neighboring tribes reside on opposite ends of the same trail, one tribe will often locate the neighboring group as an end destination along a path. The Cayuse Nez Perce name for the Umatilla River is *Hiyowátalam* 'river which ends at a distance'. This is a logical name for the river given that people would have been most familiar with the area around the mouth, as they traveled by it along the Columbia River. The Umatilla name for the river, *Imatalam Wána*, is more

descriptive of its geological quality and reflects a life lived on the river. A more recent ethnic distinction is found in the term *ʔAlláyma* 'Frenchman', which in its literal translation means 'people from downriver'.

Naturally, the use of our perceptual experiences helps us understand our place in the world. The knowledge we gain from such experiences is derived from and activated by a kind of spatial thinking. From the point of view of linguistic usage, place names encode perceptions of the world in a largely schematic way by taking information from the mind's eye and composing it into meaningful expressions. From the point of view of knowledge, a fluent speaker will first use the underlying conceptual content of a place name to assemble a potential scene, sort out spatial arrangements, or ground a reference point in the lived, natural world. Through this initial stage of the interpretive process, the speaker then activates his or her store of cultural knowledge to fill in gaps in meaning and draw on experiential context to verify and update his or her information and insights. While this may seem like a lengthy and drawn-out process, it is, in fact, an efficient and well-organized dimension of our capacity to think ecologically and "in place."

During a language work session for this atlas project with fluent Nez Perce speakers *Cáʔyaw Tamáslawtakikt* (Agnes Davis), *Yaqax ʔilp ʔilp* (Milton "Jewie" Davis), and *Cáʔyaw ʔIpelikitemuucet* (Frank

Andrews) of Nespelem, Washington, this interpretive process became readily apparent. One place name in particular captured the attention of these consultants: *Hiyúumteqeluumweespe* 'Grizzly Bear's wallowing ground'. After lengthy discussion, both *Cá'yaw Tamáslawtakikt* and *Cá'yaw Ipelikitemuucet* agreed that despite its rich and detailed content, the name refers only to the grizzly bear's relationship to his or her wallow. To emphasize this point, *Cá'yaw Ipelikitemuucet* explained that we may understand this wallow and others like it as a recurrent locality where a grizzly bear may come to immerse itself as a means to heal from trauma, sickness, or the like. To make the location into an actual place, both *Cá'yaw Tamáslawtakikt* and *Cá'yaw Ipelikitemuucet* recommended that the name be alternatively represented this way: *Hiyúumteqeluumweespe* 'at the Grizzly Bear's wallowing ground'.

By adding the locative suffix *-pe*, then, this general reference gains a human spatial identity. Consequently, the place achieves greater saliency because it assumes that a human observer is directly situated in relation to the locality. The observer can add this to his or her inventory of known places, and he or she also can update such information in relation to changing conditions, seasonal time, and other ecological factors. In other words, by virtue of being "at the grizzly bear's wallowing ground," we can take stock of the structural features of the

place and its ecological context in the same manner that our ancestors once did. This virtual linking of minds across time makes our named landscapes all the more important to know, understand, and be in.

Our challenge as a modern people is to know at what point ecological knowledge becomes operable along this continuum. Based on what we know so far, we can make claim to the presence of at least two types of knowledge—schematic and local. Schematic knowledge refers to an assessment of pre-existent, general representations of features and their corresponding relations across space. As *Cá'yaw Tamáslawtakikt* stated, "*Hiyúumteqeluumweespe* can be any number of grizzly bear wallowing grounds." This is to say that these types of wallows are only sensed implicitly at a general level and can exist anywhere outside our experience. Local knowledge, however, allows us to directly assess the features of a named place from a co-present vantage point.

In this way of knowing, an observer directly engages a place with his or her sensory perception, and it is through this sensory experience that observers revise, update, or confirm their storehouse of knowledge about the world. Local knowledge thus arises from an "intimate understanding of what is generally true in the locally obvious; it concerns what is true about place in general as manifested in this place." In this sense, the pathway

of perception is a pathway to the ecology of mind.

Place names are rich sources for interpretation and analysis, and they continue to offer insights into the thought worlds of the Cayuse, Umatilla, Walla Walla, Palouse, and Nez Perce people. Collaborative exchanges between knowledgeable cultural experts and scientific researchers have been critical to understanding how a view of our world is represented in both language and ecological ways of thinking. For example, what may be casual interpretive or explanatory comments to others may turn out to be crucial facts about reality (given our current example of Grizzly Bear's wallowing ground). We are finding that the meaning and function of place names do not just refer to simple notions of place; rather, they have the potential to carry and transmit complex information through which lived realities—temporal, spatial, experiential, and spiritual—can be critically assessed.

Every place name is an opportunity for knowledge, an opportunity now more precious than ever given the endangered status of our linguistic heritage. This research and its assessment of culturally named places may ultimately serve as the basis for new knowledge in the minds of a new generation—that is, survival and persistence of traditional ecological knowledge in a contemporary era. ■



CTUIR Tribal members Law Enick and Van Sohapp fish for salmon using gaff hooks attached to long poles at *Himéeqis Simiinikem* on the Umatilla River, near the confluence of Meacham Creek.

Panáyġukša Ánimay

'They Are Gathering for Winter'

Wišpúš (Eugene S. Hunn)

A look at how resource harvest areas were shared among the Confederated Tribes in conjunction with an analysis of place names and topographical relationships illustrate the traditional subsistence strategies used. Though distinct Tribal territories are depicted, these territories corresponded primarily to winter village distributions. Hinterland sites used at other seasons for fishing, gathering, and hunting were generally used jointly by the Confederated Tribes and associated others but not generally with *twálxa* or *twélqe* 'enemies'.

The Walla Walla Resource Harvest Area

Walla Walla people who speak their ancestral language converse in a dialect of Northeast Sahaptin, known in the language as *Waluulapammí smuvit*. The majority of the Lower Snake River Indians—along with residents of the village at the mouth of the Yakima River, who are sometimes identified separately as the *Čamnápam*—were included in the CTUIR treaty as the Walla Walla Tribe. The Walla Walla people are native to the lower portion of the Walla Walla River up to the mouth of the Touchet River. The valleys of the Touchet and Walla Walla Rivers above the mouth of the

Touchet appear to be Cayuse country, based on the linguistic contrast of the place names from this area.

The homeland of the Walla Walla included as well the main stem of the Columbia River, from just below the mouth of the Walla Walla River—as *Átway Hi'mtuúša'ki* (Harry Jim) noted—upstream to the Whire Bluffs of the Columbia, up the Yakima River to just below Prosser, and up the Snake River to at least the mouth of the Tucannon. The Tucannon River basin and the upper course of the Walla Walla River into the Blue Mountain foothills have been traditionally assigned to the Cayuse Tribe.

The fishermen and their families who camped along the Columbia River between the mouths of the Yakima and Walla Walla Rivers when Lewis and Clark's party passed on their way to the Pacific most likely were Walla Walla. The local chiefs who greeted Lewis and Clark at the mouth of the Snake and Walla Walla Rivers, "Cuts-Sáh nim" and "Yellepit," were *Miyúux* (Waluulapam) headmen. "Cuts-Sáh nim" was more precisely a chief of the *Čamnápam*, people of the village of *Čamná* on the north bank inside the mouth of the Yakima River.

Individuals who have deep family

roots on the Lower Snake River describe densely settled village clusters and crowded fishing sites at several points between the mouth of the Palouse and the Columbia. When Lewis and Clark were in this country in 1805–1806, they saw few people but recorded evidence of these villages, such as caches of "split timber," which were house planks, that expedition members "were obliged to take" for fuel in the largely treeless landscape. It seems likely that many of the Snake River villagers had moved for the season to join their kin on the Columbia, where they harvested the last fall Chinook salmon runs, those that spawn along what is now called the Hanford Reach near Richland, Washington. Other villagers were likely in the mountains hunting. Such a pattern of seasonal population shifts was common for Lower Columbia River villages.

The Cayuse Resource Harvest Area

Cayuse country contrasts with the country of the Walla Walla and the Umatilla peoples in that it is centered not on a major Columbia River fishery but in the Blue Mountains and the high valleys of the Grande Ronde, Wallowa, and Powder Rivers. The high valleys are mostly above 3,000 feet in elevation,



A root-digging expedition



The Blue Mountains from *Weylilet* village, the present site of the Whitman Mission

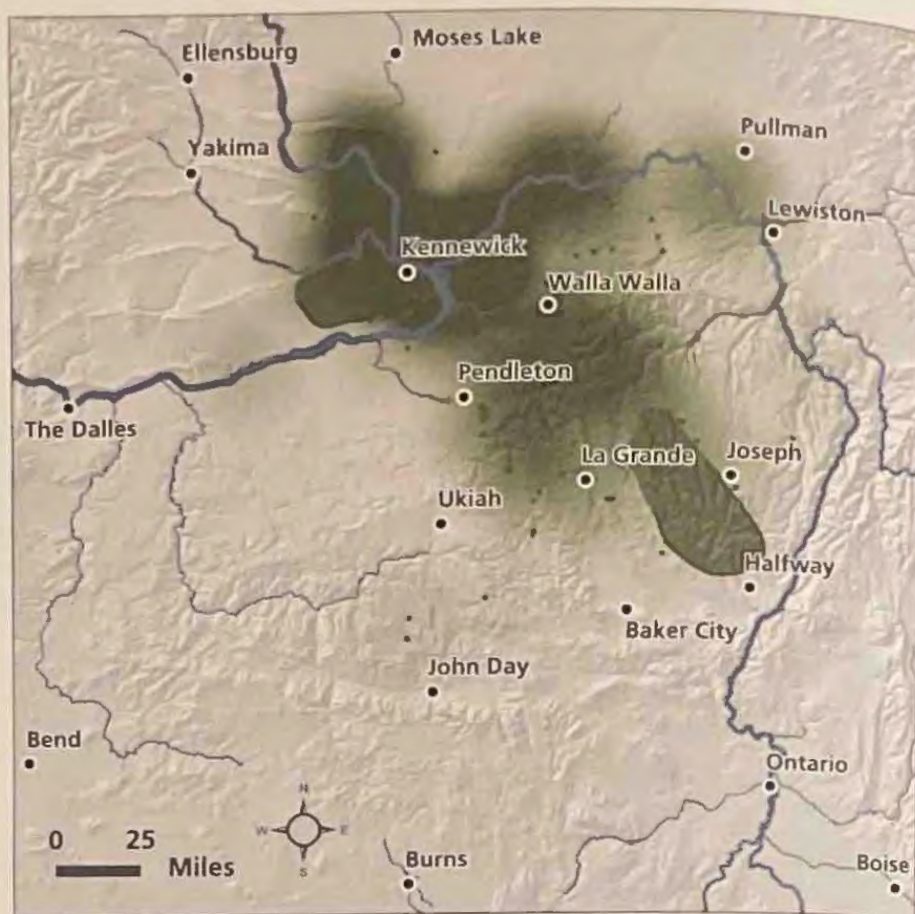
frigid and snowbound in winter but lush and abounding in fish, game, roots, and berries in summer and fall.

Some Cayuse people and their Nez Perce kin wintered in the Grande Ronde and Wallowa Valleys. During the coldest months, many retreated down the Grande Ronde and Imnaha Rivers to the shelter of the deep canyon of the Snake River. Most Cayuse, however, wintered in villages sheltered in the western foothills of the Blue Mountains on forks of the Walla Walla and Umatilla Rivers. The Tucannon River, a tributary of the Snake, served as a natural boundary for the Cayuse. The area at the mouth of the Tucannon was shared with their Palouse neighbors. The mouth of the Touchet River was another natural marker between the Cayuse and the Walla Walla.

The Cayuse were organized into nine bands, all resident within the ceded area boundaries laid out in the Treaty of 1855. This included the Touchet River drainage basin and that of the Walla Walla above the mouth of the Touchet, plus the Tucannon River drainage, the upper reaches of the Umatilla, and all of the Grande Ronde. Place names throughout this area appear to be predominantly Cayuse Nez Perce and (perhaps originally) Old Cayuse, with some Walla Walla Sahaptin place names in the Wallowa drainage.

Because the Cayuse were a people of the foothills and mountain valleys, their ecological orientation was less dependent on fishing. Their emphasis was on game and other upland resources, such as roots and berries, to a somewhat greater extent than was the case for the Umatilla and Walla Walla peoples. Even though the Cayuse were primarily people of the mountains, it is evident that all three peoples freely interacted, sharing access to land and resources through intermarriage and generally amicable intertribal relations.

The nine bands of Cayuse were named for their respective "home place," the place where the band wintered. This designation is indicated by the addition of the Cayuse Nez Perce suffix *-pu* or *-po* 'people of' to the name of the place—the characteristic manner of designating politically autonomous groups throughout the Plateau. The nine groups extend in an arc across the foothills of the Blue Mountains from the Walla Walla River basin, through the headwaters of the several forks of the Umatilla River, along



WALLA WALLA HARVEST AREAS. This density map shows the traditional harvest areas of the Walla Walla Tribe.

the Umatilla itself, along McKay, Birch, and Butter Creeks, and finally west to the Willow Creek drainage. These were sites of Cayuse winter villages.

Many Cayuse traveled with the Nez Perce to the rich fisheries of the main stem of the Columbia River, visits that were

documented by Methodist missionaries at The Dalles. Each winter, from 1838 to 1847, a group of Cayuse and Nez Perce set up camp near Wascopam. Their purpose, according to missionary Daniel Lee, as quoted in *People of The Dalles* by Robert Boyd (1996), was to "exchange



Horses graze in the Wallowa Valley.

horses and buffalo robes for salmon; and to pass the cold season." The Nez Perce and Cayuse visitors appear to have arrived shortly before Christmas each year, and they were generally gone by mid-February. The numbers involved were not small: "Great numbers of Indians here from the Upper Country—some 50 lodges on both sides of the river—say 500 souls."

The Umatilla Resource Harvest Area

The Umatilla included Sahaptin-speaking people associated with villages on the Columbia River, at and below the mouth of the Umatilla River west to at least Willow Creek. Occupants of villages in this area maintained close kinship ties on both sides of the Columbia. At one time, the Umatilla or Columbia River Sahaptin dialect was spoken from the villages at the mouth of the Umatilla River down the Columbia, at least to Alder Creek and as far west as *Wayám*. Residents of villages at present-day Arlington, Roosevelt, Pine Creek, and John Day traveled south and east in the spring, gathering and hunting toward the headwaters of the John Day River, often in the company of Umatilla kin.

Umatilla and Walla Walla people were so named by the permanent village sites at the mouths of the Umatilla and Walla Walla Rivers. Neither the Umatilla nor the Walla Walla Tribes, however, are defined by an exclusive association with the Umatilla and the Walla Walla river basins. Rather, these names are common English borrowings of village names that by virtue of the Treaty language became associated with these groups.

The Walla Walla fished from the mouth of the Walla Walla River up the



CAYUSE HARVEST AREAS. This density map shows the traditional harvest areas of the Cayuse Tribe.

Columbia, Snake, and Yakima Rivers to the outer reaches of their home country. The Umatilla fished from just below the Walla Walla River down the Columbia nearly to the John Day River. At Celilo Falls, they fished with kin. In late summer and fall, many Umatilla joined Klickitat and Yakama people on the slopes of Mt. Adams, where they used certain berry camps and ran horses at the famed Indian racetrack there.

The Umatilla subsistence strategy involved seasonal movements through the Blue Mountain foothills into the mountains in late spring and early summer, after the passage of the spring Chinook salmon runs, and then again in late summer and fall to gather ripening berries and to hunt deer and elk. The Umatilla joined a general movement of Columbia River Indians south into the foothills and the mountainous head-

Cayuse Bands of the Walla Walla River

Páašxapu 'sunflower people', named for the balsamroot sunflower on the middle Walla Walla River and Mill Creek.

Qapqapiicpu 'cottonwood grove people', named for the black cottonwood, on Cottonwood Creek, a Walla Walla tributary.

?Imseémepu 'mortar stone people', on the South Fork of the Walla Walla, on the upper Walla Walla River at and above the forks.

Cayuse Bands of the Umatilla River

Himeeqís Simiinikempu 'large confluence people'—that is, people of the 'large-confluence' place, the confluence of the North and

South Forks of the Umatilla River and at the junction of Meacham Creek and the Umatilla—on the Umatilla River between Thornhollow and Gibbon.

Nixyáawiipu 'aspen springs people', on the Umatilla River between Mission and Cayuse, below the *Himéeq'is Similinikempu*.

Háwtmipu 'McKay Creek people', on McKay Creek.

Wilúunpu 'Birch Creek people', at Pilot Rock.

Lesser known western bands

Kimilehiicpu 'Tamarack People', People of 'having-larches' place, named for the western larch, *Larix occidentalis*, supposedly on Butter Creek, but may be *Kimile* at present-day Kamela, on the divide between McKay Creek and Railroad

Creek, which drains to the east into the Grande Ronde.

hiitmépu, etymology uncertain, on Willow Creek near Heppner.

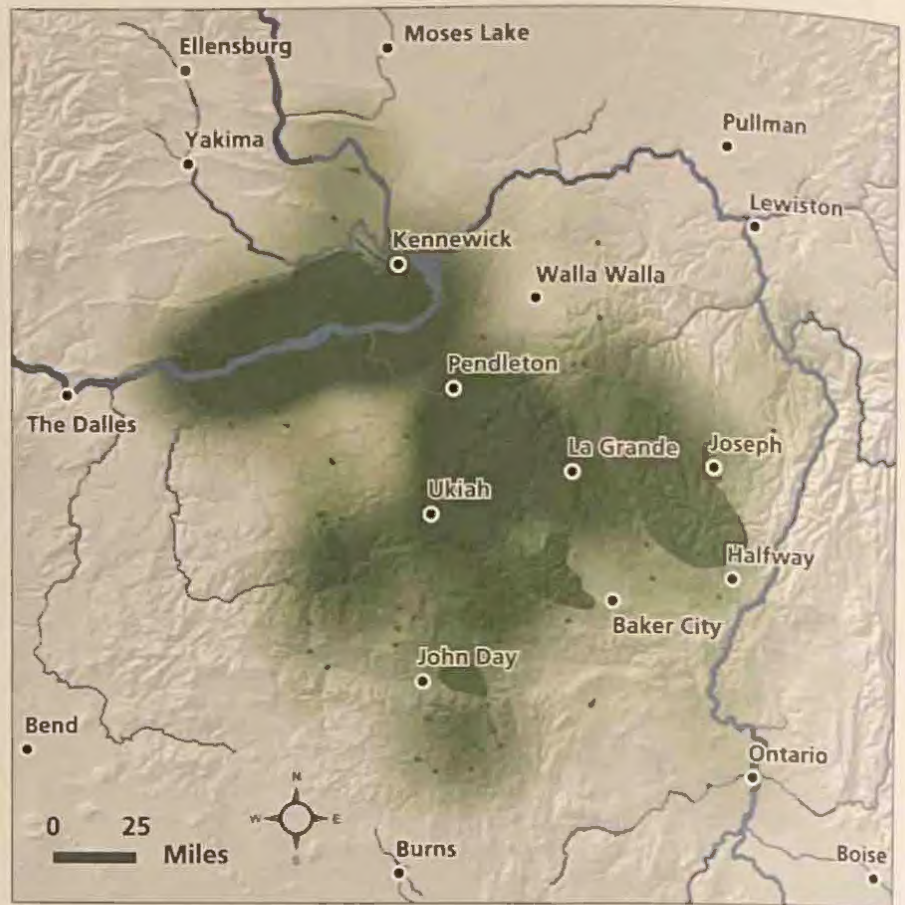
The adjacent terrain of the Blue Mountain foothills east from Walla Walla on the Touchet and Tucannon Rivers, as well as much of the upper Grande Ronde Valley, was the focus of seasonal camps devoted to stream fishing, root and berry harvesting, and hunting. Place names from throughout this region are predominantly Cayuse, represented by the Cayuse Nez Perce language, supporting the view that the Blue Mountains and the Grande Ronde Valley were Cayuse territory, though widely shared in season with their Sahaptin-speaking neighbors.

waters of the forks of the John Day. Some Umatilla families moved south up Birch and McKay Creeks, past Pilot Rock into the Camas Creek basin, which drains south into the North Fork of the John Day River. Other families camped to the west on the headwaters of Butter, Willow, and Rock Creeks, the last a tributary of the John Day River.

From there, trails led south to the Middle Fork of the John Day River, the camas meadows at Fox Valley, and beyond into the main John Day Valley. The Middle Fork connected southeast to the headwaters of the Burnt River. Using the main John Day River and its south fork, they passed into the upper Malheur and Silvies drainages, toward Paiute country. Umatilla were joined at their upper John Day camps by relatives and friends from villages down the Columbia River at Paterson, Alder Creek, Roosevelt, and John Day. They mingled with Cayuse parties across the Blue Mountain crest on the upper Grande Ronde and Powder Rivers.

Wider Travels for Trade, War, and Buffalo

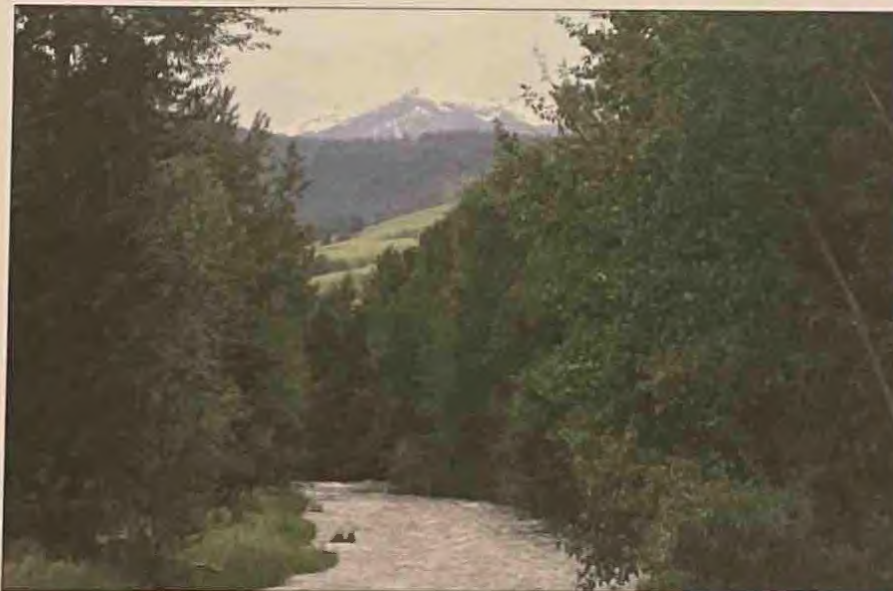
While families identified with each of the three Confederated Tribes were most closely associated with particular regions within the larger homeland, individual testimonies indicate that there were no barriers to travel beyond the homeland. Not even the traditional hostility between Plateau peoples and their Paiute and Shoshone rivals to the southeast prevented trade and traffic to the margins



UMATILLA HARVEST AREAS. This density map shows the traditional harvest areas of the Umatilla Tribe.

of the Malheur Basin and the high Snake River plains. *Cá'yaw* Gilbert E. Conner attested to this extensive mobility in his 1965 talk to the Pendleton Rotary Club on "Indian Trails of the Northwest."

As the seasons progressed, when their migrations took them across the Blue Mountains in the Grande Ronde area, they followed several trails...on over into the Grande Ronde Valley proceeding then into the Big Grande Ronde...some



Sacajawea Peak as seen from the Wallowa River



Huckleberries drying on a tulle mat

of them going south towards the Powder River area, to gather roots and hunt and follow the fish migrations. Some went over into the John Day area, North Fork of the John Day area and then followed eventually southeasterly towards the Huntington and Snake River area, some going on into the Boise Basin and then north towards the Payette Lakes.

The Umatillas who lived along the Columbia River, their migrations took them south from the Umatilla area usually across the Umatilla River towards the Heppner area....

Some Cayuses who intermarried with the Umatillas also used these areas, as well as the Northern Paiutes. They usually gathered in the Ukiah area as well as the area south of John Day, just because they knew when to gather in these places, for roots in the Ukiah area, Fox area, and the John Day tributaries, and then for beaver and fish migrations that came up the Malheur River. They followed across the mountains south of Canyon City into the area, which is called Seneca or Silvies, tributary of the Malheur, then south-easterly to the headwaters of the Malheur. There was an area of two streams there where they would spend considerable time catching the fish migration that came up the Malheur River from the Snake.

Mounted Umatilla and Cayuse parties also ranged beyond their Blue Mountain heartland to trade at the Green River Rendezvous in present-day Wyoming, to camp with Warm Springs and John



WHERE WE LIVED AND TRAVELED. This map shows the extent of the area the three Tribes traveled to hunt, fish, gather, socialize, and trade. The area of travel for traditional purposes greatly expanded after the arrival of the horse in the early 1700s.

Day kin on the Deschutes River, or to hunt buffalo on the plains east of the Continental Divide. References to buffalo hunts include hunting with Crow, fighting with Sioux, and ongoing combative relations with Blackfeet. Sometimes ancestors who "went to buffalo" stayed out on the buffalo commons for a winter or two before returning home, before and after they had horses. Testimony at the Treaty Council in 1855 also reflected the importance of access to bison.

Prior to American settlement, mounted parties from the Columbia River raided for war captives among Northern Paiute, Klamath, Modoc, and Achomawi in

northern Nevada and northeastern California, to be raided in turn by mounted Northern Paiute and Shoshone. The son of Walla Walla headman *Piyópiyo Maqsmáqs* was killed at Fort Sutter (present-day Sacramento, California) on a trek in 1843. With mastery of horses, ancestors of today's Confederated Tribes ranged even farther through the mountains and valleys of the West.



A mule deer peeking out of the forest



Tule growing in wetlands

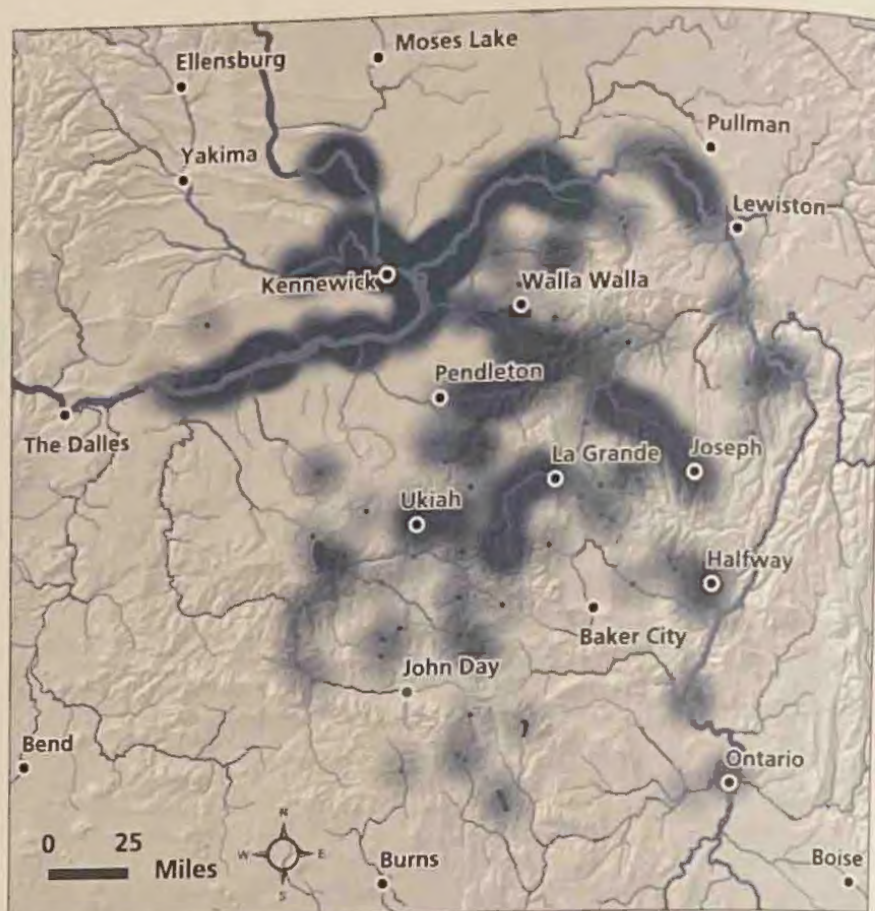
Plants and Animals in Place Names

It is often presumed that Plateau Indians relied primarily on fishing and hunting for their sustenance. River peoples such as the Umatilla and Walla Walla have been characterized as fishermen, and upriver groups such as the Cayuse and Nez Perce have been typified as hunters, heavily dependent on game. There is truth in this assessment, but a key element is overlooked: plant resources.

Such resources—particularly those used for food—were by and large the responsibility of women to harvest and prepare. Women processed fish and game (cooking, drying, and storing) while serving and distribution was done by men. Both men and women used plant materials in their respective technological spheres—basketry and related arts, plus the processing of hides for clothing by women and the manufacture of hunting and fishing implements and the construction of lodges by men. Both men and women might collect firewood and harvest and apply plant medicines.

At any particular place, there could be many choices of plants or animals recognized in the name of the place. The namesake plant or animal is usually outstanding in some fashion, whether because of its abundance or appearance or its spiritual or economic significance. By virtue of having a place named for them in the Indian languages, plants or animals are, almost by definition, culturally significant and perceptually distinctive.

Listed in these tables are representative animal and plant foods, medicines, and materials, particularly with regard to their seasonal and biogeographic distributions. Also listed are examples of animal and plant names that were incorporated into names for places.



FISHING DISTRIBUTION. This density map shows the combined traditional fishing distribution areas of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla Tribes.

Waykâanaš: Aquatic Resources

English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
salmon		nūsux	nūsux	cūyem
chinook salmon	<i>Oncorhynchus tshawytscha</i>	tk ^h inat	tk ^h inat	nacōʔx
silver salmon	<i>Oncorhynchus kisutch</i>	sinux	sinux	kállay
blueback salmon	<i>Oncorhynchus nerka</i>	kálux	kálux	qóyxc
dog salmon; spawned out salmon	<i>Oncorhynchus keta</i>	mitúla	áyx	ʔeeyx
steelhead	<i>Oncorhynchus mykiss</i>	šušáyñš	šušáyš	hēeyey
bull trout	<i>Salvelinus confluentus</i>	āščinš	āščinš	ʔislam
small fish in general		xúlxl	xúlxl	cūyem
rainbow trout	<i>Oncorhynchus mykiss</i>	pickatyú	pickatyú	plickatyo
lamprey	<i>Entosphenus tridentatus</i>	ksúyas	ksúyas	hēesu
freshwater mussels		xistú	siwáala	seewiʔs

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available. SOURCE: See Hunn (1990, 316).



Salmon return to their spawning grounds



Fish in viewing window



Eel-drying class

Waykáanaš: Aquatic Resources

Nūsux 'salmon and steelhead'

PLACE NAMES

ʔÉyʔetéespe 'at the place of the spawned-out salmon'

Hesúutiin 'place of eels'

Seewiʔsnime 'of mussels'

Awinat: Game Resources

PLACE NAMES

Wilalikaas 'jackrabbit place'

Héeyuxcpe 'cottontail rabbit place'

Aykʔsmí Tánawt 'cottontail's burrow'

Wúutawnimay 'place of pronghorn'

Kákya: Birds and Bird Resources

PLACE NAMES

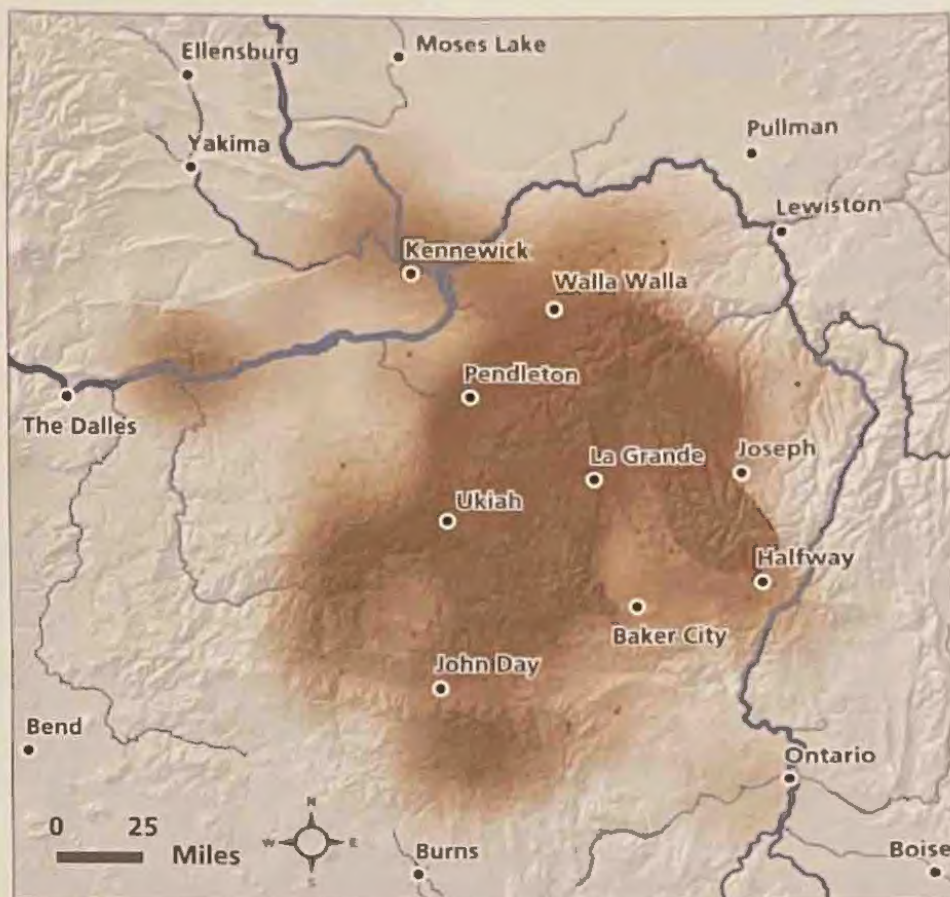
Wawiyúkma 'poorwills'

Atway Hiʔmtuúlsaʔkiʔ (Harry Jim) provided this account of bird hunting near his home at Fishhook Bend on the Snake River:

There were lots of geese in the fall around the confluence of the Snake and Columbia. They used posts with nets and arranged them to fall down on the geese. Also ducks were on sloughs here. A man in the water catches their legs. He can catch five or six at a time. He didn't need a bow and arrow.

This is also where rabbits were caught with nets attached to a long wire. A long line of people would drive rabbits into the net while two-three men would hold on to the net.

It was the same way with sage hens. They would use upright nets that would fall down on the birds. They were fastened on the ends. The birds would fly around and get tangled up. They could catch six, ten, twenty, at one time.



HUNTING DISTRIBUTION. This density map shows the combined traditional hunting distribution areas of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla Tribes.

Awinat: Game Resources				
English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
mule deer	<i>Odocoileus hemionus</i>	yáamaš	yáamaš	yeʔemes
bull elk	<i>Cervus canadensis</i>	wawúkya	wawúkya	wewúkiye
cow elk	<i>Cervus canadensis</i>	tašimka	tašipka	taslipx
jackrabbit	<i>Lepus californianus</i> , <i>Lepus townsendii</i>	wilalik	wilalik	wiláalix
cottontail rabbit	<i>Sylvilagus nuttallii</i>	áykʔs	áykʔs	héeyuxc
pronghorn	<i>Antilocapra americana</i>	wáwataw	wúutaw	lakálix, coqálayniñ
Kákya: Birds and Bird Resources				
Canada goose	<i>Branta canadensis</i>	ákak	ákak	yáayax
mallard duck	<i>Anas platyrhynchos</i>	xátxat	xátxat	qéetqet
sage grouse	<i>Centrocercus urophasianus</i>	payúms		
sharp-tailed grouse	<i>Tympanuchus phasianellus</i>	qíxnu	qíxnu	qáxno
poorwill	<i>Phalaenoptilus nuttalli</i>	wawiyúk		
kingfisher	<i>Megascops alcyon</i>	šaxšax	šaxšax	tulúulux

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available.



Bull elk grazing in the Blue Mountains



A family of geese taking a dip



Jackrabbit

Canada geese nested commonly on islands in the Columbia River, but many of these colonies were flooded by the dams. Three place names indicate the significance of geese for local subsistence, one named simply *Ákak*, the other two named *Ákakpa* 'at goose'.

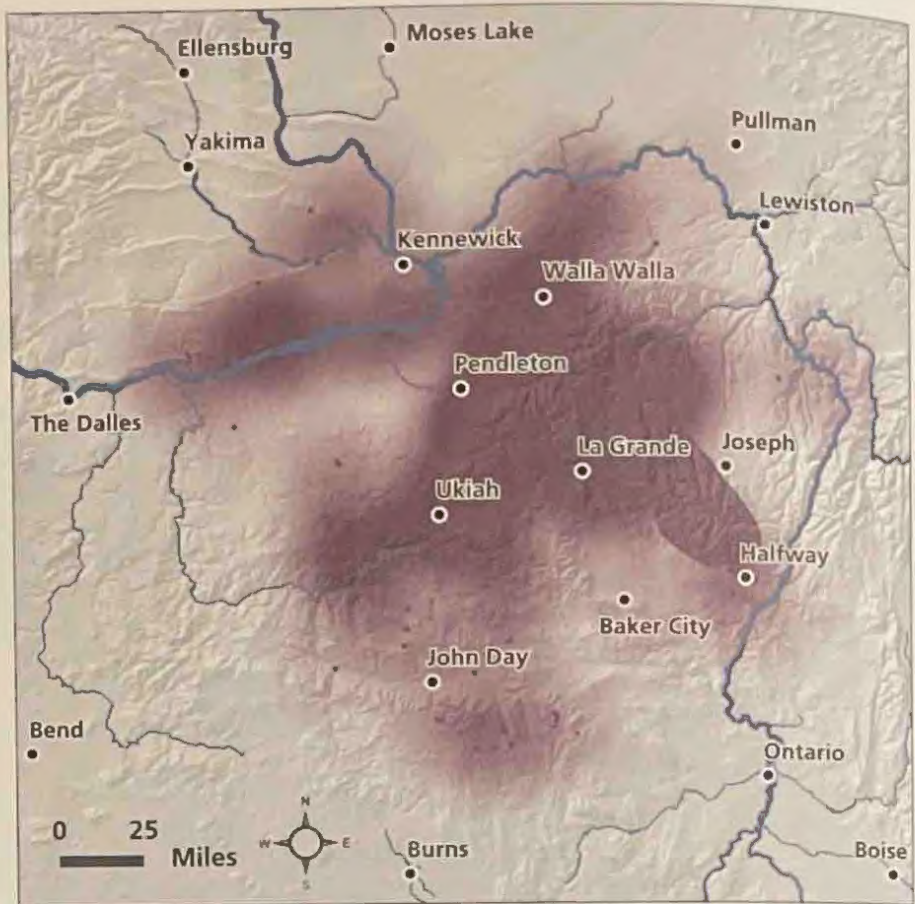
Sage and sharp-tailed grouse were abundant in sage bunchgrass flats at the time of Lewis and Clark. Both are now reduced to small, isolated populations outside the Tribes' homeland.

A well-known village on the Snake River near Fishhook Bend was called *Wawiyúkma* 'poorwills'. The arid rocky terrain in this area is prime habitat for this small nocturnal bird. A place on the Snake River near *Wawiyúkma*, was called *Saxsaxmi* 'kingfisher's place'. Even spiders were recognized in place names, as in *Wixalxalipa* 'at rock spider'.

Xnit and Tmaanít: Plant Foods

PLACE NAMES
lišnima 'place of cow parsnip'

Analyses of the nutritional contribution of plant foods to the aboriginal diet indicate that as much as 65 percent of total calories may have come from plants (Hunn 1981). Two major categories of plant foods are recognized in Sahaptian: *xnit* 'roots', literally foods that are dug, and *xni* 'to dig food roots', *qi'nii* in Cayuse Nez Perce; *tmaanít* 'fruits', literally foods that are picked; and *tmaani* 'to pick fruits', *timaani* in Cayuse Nez Perce. Also important are the *hahán* 'celeries', literally 'stems', *héhen* in in Cayuse Nez Perce, and several varieties of mushrooms.



GATHERING DISTRIBUTION. This density map shows the combined traditional gathering distribution areas of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla Tribes.

<i>Hahán: Celeries</i>				
English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
spring gold (Indian celery)	<i>Lomatium grayi</i>	<i>latitlatit, xásya</i>	<i>latitlatit, xásya</i>	<i>wewiimn</i>
salmonflower biscuitroot	<i>Lomatium salmoniflorum</i>			<i>ilq'úulx</i>
Indian consumption plant	<i>Lomatium nudicaule</i>	<i>xamsi, ptišptiš</i>	<i>xamsi</i>	
cow parsnip	<i>Heracleum maximum</i>	<i>txú, iis</i>	<i>iis</i>	<i>ʔáys, ʔayas</i>

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available.



Children digging roots



Elder digging roots



Wild hyacinth blooming in early spring

Xñit: Roots				
English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
bitterroot	<i>Lewisia rediviva</i>	pyaxi	pyaxi	litáan
cous	<i>Lomatium cous</i>	xáwš	xáwš	qáamsit (fresh), qáaws (peeled and dried)
desert parsley, bare stem	<i>Lomatium nudicaule</i>	xamsi	xamsi	
desert parsley	<i>Lomatium canbyi</i>	lúukš	lamúš, škúlkul	qeqiit
desert parsley	<i>Lomatium gormanii</i>	sasamita		
desert parsley	<i>Lomatium piperi</i>	mámin	mámin	
yellow bell	<i>Fritillaria pudica</i>	sikni	častali	
Indian carrot	<i>Perideridia gairdneri</i>	sawitk	sawitk	cawitx
Indian potato	<i>Claytonia lanceolata</i>	anipáš	anipáš	
wild hyacinth	<i>Brodiaea hyacintha/ Brodiaea douglasii</i>	sibx's	isibx's	cáfoxc
tobacco root	<i>Valeriana edulis</i>	k'iya	k'iya	kúuyé
camas	<i>Camassia quamash</i>	xmáaš, wáKamu	xmáašmi	qéñes
Tmaanít: Fruits				
golden currant	<i>Ribes aureum</i>	xin	xnin	kál
serviceberry bush	<i>Amelanchier alnifolia</i>	kkáasu ččáa (fruit)	kkáasu ččáa (fruit)	kayaakaya kikéeye (fruit)
black hawthorn bush	<i>Crataegus douglasii</i>	šnimáašu šnim (fruit)	ššnimšway ššnim (fruit)	ššnim
chokecherry tree	<i>Prunus virginiana</i>	tmáašu tmiš (fruit)	tmišway tmiš (fruit)	timsčaway tims (fruit)
black-mountain huckleberry	<i>Vaccinium membranaceum</i>	wiwnu	wiwnu	cemirx
grouseberry	<i>Vaccinium scoparium</i>	wiwluwlu		?ala?ála

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available.

Hahán: Indian Celeries

The Indian year begins with the harvest of Indian celeries, which are rich in such perishable vitamins as vitamin C. Some are ready to harvest as early as February; others are available as late as May. The majority of Indian celeries are in the same botanical family as garden celery, the Apiaceae, but in different genera, particularly *Lomatium*. The earliest of all is *Lomatium grayi*, called *latitlatit* in

Umatilla and *wew'úmn* in Cayuse Nez Perce. It can be abundant along dry creek margins at low elevations. *Lomatium salomoniflorum*—*ilq'úulx* in Cayuse Nez Perce—a rare species found only in basalt talus slides, was also harvested along the Lower Snake River. Best known of all the celeries is *xamsi*, another *Lomatium*, *L. nudicaule*. The flower stalks, which have a sharp celery flavor, are succulent early in the season before the flowers

open. The edible leaf bases may be distinguished as *píšpíš*. As spring progresses and families move camp into the Blue Mountains, another celery relative, *txi* ('*ays* in Cayuse Nez Perce), known as cow parsnip, is targeted for harvest.

By late March or early April, the root-digging season opens, following a ceremonial First Foods thanksgiving feast by each community. Species of roots served at feasts vary from place to place. Some people prefer to dig bitterroot, and the choice may depend on how bitter the bitterroot is at particular locations at various times of the year. In the Myth Age, Skunk sprayed the bitterroots near villages where people insulted him but spared those near friendly villages. Other people prefer to gather cous, which is characteristically abundant on the open rocky slopes of the Blue Mountains. Cous owes its English and Latin names to the Cayuse Nez Perce term *qáaws*, for the tuberous root. The plant itself is *qáamsit*, and the Sahaptin term for both plant and root is the cognate *xáwš*.

Xñit: Roots

PLACE NAMES

Sawitki 'has Indian carrots'
K'iyaK'iya 'much tobacco root'

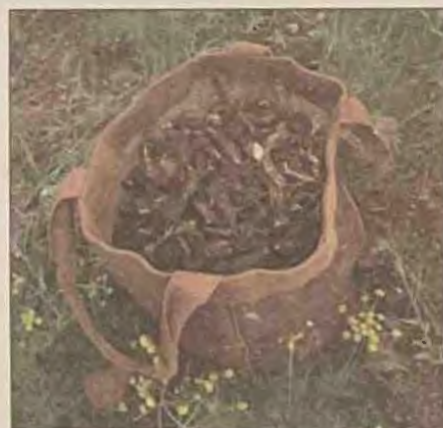
Early spring root harvests exploited the rocky flats that form a patchwork mosaic within the shrub-steppe and montane forest biomes. This is called the lithosol microhabitat, or *šám* in Sahaptin. In addition to hosting bitterroot and cous, lithosol patches support dense populations of other edible roots such as three varieties of desert parsley—*Lomatium canbyi*, *Lomatium farinosum*, *Lomatium piperi*, and yellow-bell, *Fritillaria pudica*, a lily. The *Lomatium* roots in particular



Lomatium cous blooming in late spring



Sagebrush mariposa lily



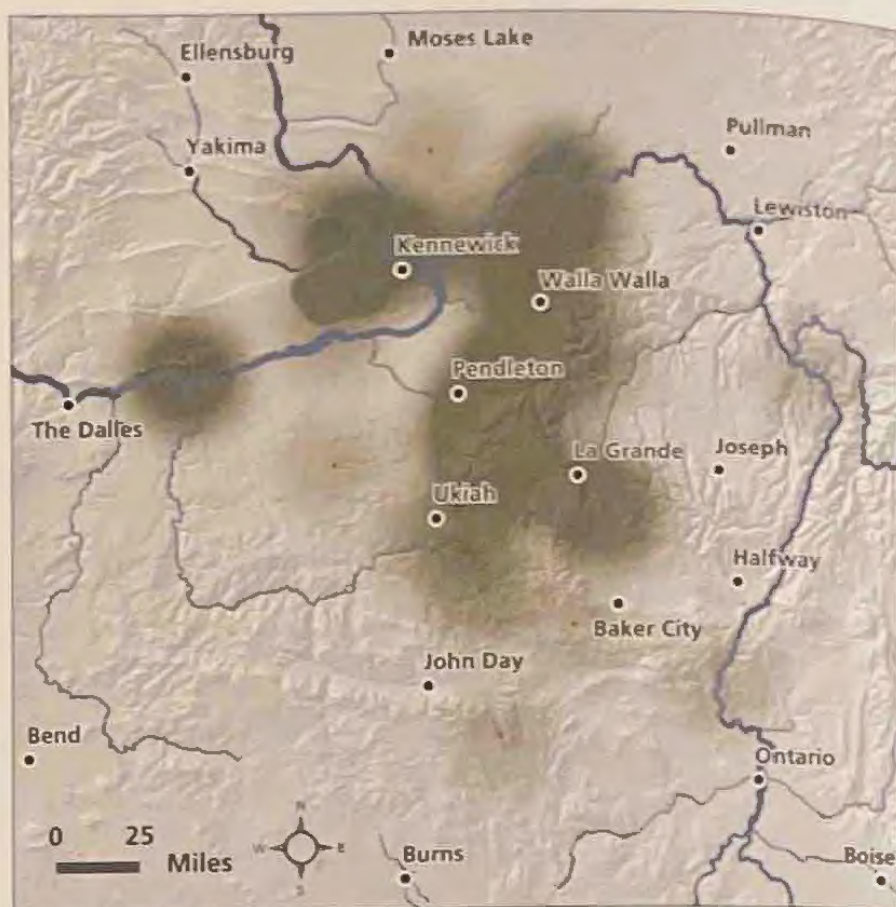
Cous root after digging

are harvested in large quantities, which might be sun-dried or smoke-dried for winter use.

Late spring and summer root harvests targeted seasonally wet meadow microhabitats—*táy* or *táy* in Umatilla, *ta'ák* in Walla Walla, and *téekin* in Cayuse Nez Perce. *Ká'iyitpa Táaypa* 'at first foods meadow' is a place name that recognizes the value of this habitat association. In these meadows, one could harvest quantities of *sawít*, *cawít* in Cayuse Nez Perce, Indian carrots or yampa; *anipás*, Indian potatoes; *sítxws*, hyacinth brodiaea; *kw'íya*, *k'úuy'e* in Cayuse Nez Perce, tobacco root, foul smelling but edible nonetheless; and best of all, camas.

Like cous, camas is named in both English and Latin, *Camassia quamash*, after the Cayuse Nez Perce term *qé'mes*, *xmáas* or *wakamu* in Sahaptin. Meriwether Lewis collected the first modern scientific specimens of both cous and camas while passing through Nez Perce country and no doubt was taught the local names by his Nez Perce guides. The camas harvest was an occasion to be festive, as hundreds of people gathered at favorite camas meadows for a week or two, with each family or band camped in their traditional spot. While the men raced horses, hunted, and plotted strategies, women dug and cleaned the roots and baked them. This process is called *támayē* in Umatilla, *támak* in Walla Walla, and *téemek* in Cayuse Nez Perce. People have been gathering and processing camas for thousands of years. For example, a dense scattering of camas ovens, marked by concentrations of fire-cracked rock, has been dated to about 5,000 years ago north of Spokane, Washington. These archaeological finds point to a widespread reliance on camas as a food resource.

A place near Ukiah is known as *Xáwšátaš* 'cous place' in Umatilla Sahaptin. This appears to be the same place known to the Cayuse as *Qaw'si'spa* 'at the place of having cous', which is



GRAZING DISTRIBUTION. This density map shows the combined traditional grazing distribution areas of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla Tribes.

Tawtnúk: Medicine				
English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
nettles	<i>Urtica dioica</i>	ala'ála	ala'ála	wefetwéet
wormwood	<i>Artemisia ludoviciana</i>	pu'úxpu'ux		
lovage	<i>Ligusticum canbyi</i>	áyun	áyut, qawsqáwš	qawsqáwš
chocolate-tips	<i>Lomatium dissectum</i>	calúks	calúks	trálam
horsetail fern	<i>Equisetum arvense</i>	sikšik	sikšik	sáyxayx
Other Resources				
prickly-pear cactus	<i>Opuntia polycantha</i>	štš	štš	pštš
hazelnut	<i>Corylus cornuta</i>	kkúš	kkúš	kkúš

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available.



Huckleberries drying in the sun



Black tree lichen



Prickly-pear cactus in bloom

Ałayłuk̓i: Materials

English	Latin	Umatilla	Walla Walla	Cayuse Nez Perce
juniper	<i>Juniperus occidentalis</i>	pūš	pūš	cikēeyek
western red cedar	<i>Thuja plicata</i>	nānk	nānk	talatat
lodgepole pine	<i>Pinus contorta</i>	qalamqalam	qalamqalam	qalamqalam
bulrush or tule	<i>Schoenoplectus acutus</i>	tku	tku	tko
black cottonwood	<i>Populus balsamifera</i> var. <i>trichocarpa</i>	xipšp	xipšp	qapqap
quaking aspen	<i>Populus tremuloides</i>	nini	nini	
willow	<i>Salix</i> spp.	ttixš	ttixš	ttixš
peachleaf willow	<i>Salix amygdaloides</i>	hahāw		
water birch	<i>Betula occidentalis</i>	ašnipš		heslips
creasewood	<i>Sarcobates vermiculatus</i>	nīšxt	nīšxt	
Indian hemp	<i>Apocynum cannabinum</i>	taxʹis	taxʹis	qēemu
big sagebrush	<i>Artemisia tridentata</i>	tawšā	tawšā	qēmqem
rabbribrush	<i>Chrysothamnus</i> spp.	pšxū	pšxū	qēmqem

NOTE: Blank spaces indicate that no information is available.

on Camas Creek a few miles below its junction with Cable Creek, a fishing site of the Umatilla and Cayuse. This is a rare instance when the same place is known by cognate terms in both languages.

Tmaanít: Berries

PLACE NAMES

Xīnpa 'at golden currant'
Kkāasi 'has serviceberry bushes'
Tmāášupa 'at chokecherry bush'
tštš 'prickly-pear cactus'

In some years I have traveled to gather tmiš [chokecherry]. The following year, where I had picked before was not as abundant as the year before.

—Kakinaš

(E. Thomas Morning Owl)

Summer heat brings ripe fruit. Favorites ripen sequentially at progressively higher elevations, beginning in June with golden currants, then through July with thornberries, serviceberries, and chokecherries along the Columbia River and its major



Kakinaš gathering conks, an Indian paint fungus unique to Douglas-firs

tributaries. The season culminates with the harvest of huckleberries and grouseberries in high mountain meadows from August until the first snows of October. Also included in the general category of *tmaanít* 'foods that are picked' are hazelnuts and black tree lichen.

Many fruits are dried for winter use. Huckleberries, for example, are dried specifically to preserve the vitamin content. When breaking camp at their huckleberry meadows to return to the river for

First Foods

Eric J. Quaempts, Director, Department of Natural Resources, CTUIR

Implicit in Plateau philosophy is the notion that all of the natural world is a gift from the Creator. The natural world, in turn, gifts the people by giving of their lives for their sustenance. This relationship is not based on the consumption of resources in the Western sense wherein the value is determined by the supply and demand that results in indirect benefit, usually in the form of currency, to the user or extractor of the resource. In the First Foods approach, the relationship is much more intimate, as the gifted recipient understands that there exists a precondition that requires reciprocity: the people agree to protect in perpetuity those beings that contribute to his or her well-being.

This cultural significance, evidenced by the seemingly simple act of setting the traditional longhouse table, guides the way natural resources are protected, restored, and managed on the Umatilla Reservation. The Confederated Tribes' Department of Natural Resources (DNR), which has more than a hundred employees, adopted the First Foods mission in 2007, so that the department's efforts could be better connected to the Tribal community's cultural values.

First Foods is a powerful and elegant system that incorporates the Creation belief, promotes cultural continuity, and reminds us of the rights

reserved by Treaty signers 150 years ago. It groups ecologically related resources—water, aquatic species, game, roots, and fruits—as an aboriginal system that incorporates people into ecology.

The First Foods approach uses the order of foods served in a tribal meal to bring attention to species and ecological processes that are often unrecognized or devalued outside the Tribal community. It provides a culturally appropriate means to report restoration progress to the Tribal community. It also provides direct links to the Treaty of 1855 and can be used to assist other governments in meeting their trust responsibilities to the CTUIR.

Perhaps most importantly, First Foods supports the continuity of Tribal culture, because so many cultural activities are "food associated," including accessing and pursuing foods, harvesting them, preserving them, and celebrating and sharing them. Without First Foods, the culture would be greatly diminished.

Water is central to the concept of First Foods, which also includes the men's foods—salmon and other fish, deer and other game—and the women's foods—cous and other roots and huckleberries and other berries. In accordance with the teachings of the ancestral teachers, everything done by individuals and the community should relate back to this most important and basic cultural tradition of gathering and sharing the First Foods. Federal agencies who have

reviewed the First Foods approach to natural resource management have acknowledged that it makes clear the connection of the Tribes' cultural and natural resource values.

First Foods is not a menu. In Creation stories and belief, it is the order in which the foods promised to take care of the people. When the Creator asked, "Who will take care of the people?" Salmon said, "I will," and the other fish lined up behind him. Then the deer made a promise, and so on.

Ecology always requires reciprocity. In the case of First Foods, that reciprocity is manifested in respect for the Creator's law, which requires recognition of the First Foods through respectful celebration, harvest, and the care of and sharing of the foods after their respective feasts. When people serve at traditional meals, they are sometimes told, "Be careful, you're carrying a law."



Salmon, a First Food



'Sagebrush grows near Hermiston, Oregon



'Golden currant



Green rabbitbrush

the winter, local tribes selectively allowed fire to spread into the surrounding forest to maintain an open shrub community in which huckleberries would thrive.

Náykuki and Tawtnúk: Materials and Medicines

Plants serve many other useful purposes beyond their value as foods, and native technologies employ a range of species of grasses, herbs, vines, shrubs, and trees. Of outstanding importance were tules, also known as hard-stem bulrush, *tli* in Sahaptin, *tlo* in Cayuse Nez Perce. Tule mats are sewn with hemp twine, using the hard, sharply pointed twigs of greasewood, *níxxt* in Sahaptin, as needles.

Tules grow to over ten feet tall in still, shallow water. Their stems are round, filled with a cellulose matrix that both insulates and cushions. Overlapping tule mats covered the A-frame winter lodges in use when Lewis and Clark visited. Tule mats were carried on the seasonal round to cover frames at summer camps and for sleeping. Food was served on them and is still served on them today for feasts at *Wáasat* services. Babies were delivered onto tule mats, and the deceased were often returned to the earth covered or wrapped in a tule mat (and often still are today). Women worked through the winter to maintain a ready supply of these household essentials. Tule mats are still in demand, and mat-making is a specialized skill practiced by a select few.

Berry baskets require a firmer frame than that used in the twined root bags of hemp. The famed Klickitat baskets are

coiled of cedar root. Locally, baskets can be quickly constructed of strips of cedar bark or twined willow. Willow is also the primary material for constructing fish weirs. Lewis and Clark described one such weir across the Walla Walla River just above its mouth. Frames of woven willow withes were suspended between willow tripods set at intervals across the stream course.

The peachleaf willow was called *bahaw* in Sahaptin. It grows straight and tall at certain points along the margins of the Columbia and lower tributaries in a landscape otherwise nearly devoid of trees of stature. This willow is the preferred timber for traditional longhouse frames. A companion tree of riparian corridors is the tall black cottonwood called *qapqáp*. The site of present-day La Grande, in the heart of the Grande Ronde country and the summer meeting ground of Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla families, is called *Qapqápa* 'at cottonwoods'.

Náykuki 'that which is gathered': Materials

PLACE NAMES

Púuší 'hawing junipers'
Qalámqalam 'loosepole pine'
Nínípa 'at aspens'
Ttíxší 'has willows'
Ašnípšpa 'at water birch'
Laaqaláaqa 'a little ponderosa pine tree'

Montane habitats were often recognized in terms of dominant trees or shrubs. A village three miles above the Hanford

townsite, on the Columbia River above Tri-Cities, Washington was named *Tawšápa*, from Walla Walla Sahaptin *tawša* 'rabbitbrush'. A small island nearly opposite the mouth of Rock Creek, Washington, close to the Oregon side of the river at a rapids, was called simply *Tawša* 'big sagebrush'.

A stopping place between Willow Creek on the Columbia River and Ione was called *Tawšátawša* 'much big sagebrush'.

Tawtnúk: Medicine

PLACE NAMES

Alaʔala 'nettles'
Ayun 'lovage'
Šílkšíik 'horsetail rush'

Plant medicines are known as *tawtnúk* in Sahaptin, *sáykiptáas* or *sáykipta* in Cayuse Nez Perce. The sweathouse, *xʷiyáč* in Sahaptin and *wistítamo* in Cayuse Nez Perce, can combine the benefits of a floor covered with branches of cleansing balsam fir (*Abies* sp.) with intense heat, prayers, and vapors of healing herbs. Some medicines are widely known, such as *ayun* 'lovage', offered for sale at powwows to ease the night throats of singers.

It is important to also mention *talukš*, *tíalám* in Cayuse Nez Perce, a medicinal plant known throughout the arid West that was sometimes used in hal-low waters to stun fish. Most medicinal applications of *talukš* were topical, applied as a compress to an infected wound or sore, but a potion might be



Gathering dogbane hemp

drunk for respiratory ailments. *Čalúkš* was especially important as a veterinary remedy to treat saddle sores and through inhalation to “inspire” a winded horse. The herb *šiiik^w šiiik^w*, the horsetail fern, was administered to bloated horses or horses unable to urinate.

Select native plants were also commonly used as hair tonics. *Átway Tekípš* (Dan Motanic) recalled the shiny hair of the Tribal people from his childhood, noting that solutions made of coyote rope vine (*Clematis ligusticifolia*) could address lackluster hair or scalp conditions.

Many of the place names in this atlas refer to a plant or animal species characteristic of the site, including fish, birds,

mammals, and insects. Others refer to species of plants, including trees, edible roots, and plant species used as medicine or in technology. Place names in the atlas also refer to human activity, with most of them indirectly related to the use of plants and animals in the subsistence economy. There are also places named for spearing, netting, and trapping fish; hunting; constructing houses; and storing food. Dozens of place names refer to natural features on the landscape, and some refer to an earthen material found or used at the site, such as an obsidian bed or a hot spring. Few place names refer to people who lived at the site or to specific individuals.



Twining hemp

In comparison, Euro-American names for places on this landscape are predominantly anthropocentric, or people-centered. The contrast may be understood as reflecting two very different perspectives. In the native tradition, Coyote named places during the Myth Age that preceded the arrival of people to occupy the land, and some of the place names in this atlas reflect that tradition. Place names were not human inventions but intrinsic aspects of the landscape, of the Law of Nature, laid down by the Creator. Euro-American place names, by contrast, reflect the perspective of the colonizer, for whom naming was a prize of conquest. ■



Átway Twáway (Inez Spino-Reves) demonstrating tule mat weaving



Indian hemp bark is still gathered by tribal members today.



Gathering tule

Pašúwaša Tímanina Tiičámna 'They Are Cutting Up the Marked Land'

Kakínaš (E. Thomas Morning Owl) and *Sísaawipam* (Roberta L. Conner)

When my mother was a kid she roamed Echo, Stanfield, Umatilla, and on to Arlington. That was her territory. She also roamed over to John Day and Butter Creek.... When the salmon came in they moved to Hermiston to catch salmon. That was before the Three Mile Dam came along or was constructed.... Going to the mountains almost all summer until October. The older people used to hunt any place. They didn't have no boundaries.

—Átway Pa-ah-ca-akin
(Uriah "Red" Alexander)

The foundation of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla peoples' title to the land lies in the actions of the Creator and the Animal People who put the law and spirit on the land, the law of creation that defines relationships between all that lives. Our people share spirit with the land, which is also part of how it is that we own it. This law and spirit were not erased by the making of treaties between the United States and our people. Likewise, this law and spirit were not destroyed by federal legislation or adjudication. They still stand. While the overlay of modern treaty boundaries and court decisions affect how we live on the land today, they do not diminish that which was established in the time of the Animal People. Instead of giving dominion over land to people, traditional teachings acknowledge the gifts of the Creator and require human beings to be stewards of the land and cohorts of all living beings.

The Umatilla Reservation was reserved at the Walla Walla Treaty Council of 1855. For us, land was not a thing to be traded, as pointed out by *Piyópiyo Maqsmáqs* in the 1855 Council proceedings: "Goods and the Earth are not equal; goods are for using on the Earth." But the Treaty commissioners, who said they had the intent "to preserve peace and protect" the people, pressed tribal headmen to choose a place to live before the land was filled up with "whites." To compel a decision, they talked about the recent discovery of gold north of the homeland, saying that their "people are

very fond of it," and they talked about the flood of settlers the railroad would bring. They proposed where the people should go and pushed them to decide quickly. Our leaders were unwilling to oblige the offer made by Washington Territorial Governor Isaac Stevens on June 4: "We wish to put the Spokanes, the Nes Perces, the Walla Wallas, the Cayuses, the Umatillas on one Reservation in the Nes Perces country."

The initial proposal from the U.S. Treaty commissioners was to establish two large reservations, one in Washington and the other in Idaho. These are now the Yakama and Nez Perce Reservations. In the early stages of negotiation, they did not propose to establish a separate reservation for the Cayuse, Walla Walla, and Umatilla. This was not agreeable to the Tribes at the Treaty Council, and behind the scenes they deliberated and some proposed war. After nearly two weeks of deadlock, on June 8, 1855, Oregon Superintendent of Indian Affairs Joel Palmer presented a proposal for a third reservation. That reservation—the Umatilla Reservation—was identified to avert an all-out armed conflict that had begun to gather force on the Council grounds.

With other Plateau tribes, our ancestors had lived on 12 million acres of land, including traditional travel routes and encampments from downriver at Tenino, the westernmost Sahaptin-speaking village on the south side of the Columbia some nine miles below Celilo Falls, across the Rockies to Yellowstone, and from northern California to southern British Columbia. The homelands of the three Tribes encompassed 6.4 million acres. And yet the cover letter transmitting the 1855 Treaty to the Commissioner of Indian Affairs indicated that the lands ceded by the Tribes totaled 4,012,800 acres, or 6,270 square miles. By 1960, the Indian Claims Commission (ICC) had determined that the Tribes had aboriginal title to just 4,259,500 acres.

The Umatilla Reservation, as originally proposed and represented on the 1855 Treaty map, encompassed an area of 512,000 acres, or 800 square miles. The Treaty—ratified by the U.S. Senate on March 8, 1859, three weeks after Oregon achieved statehood—established a legal federal title to the vast majority of the Tribal homeland and extinguished much of our Indian title. Beginning in 1860, the citizens of the new Cayuse, Umatilla, and



ISAAC STEVENS'S ORIGINAL COUNCIL TREATY MAP. This hand-drawn map was created at the 1855 Walla Walla Treaty Council at the conclusion of negotiations establishing the Umatilla Indian Reservation. The original is located in the National Archives and Records Administration in College Park, Maryland.

Walla Walla confederacy, established by the Treaty, were relocated under military orders from millions of acres onto just thousands of acres.

To add insult to injury, not only did federal officials fail to acknowledge the actual size of the confederacy's homeland, but they also failed to recognize and honor the reservation boundaries reserved by the Treaty. The boundaries were not formally surveyed until 1871, sixteen years after the Treaty Council, at which time the area of the surveyed reservation was a mere 245,000 acres. American settler expansionism extended well into the late 1800s, and the surrounding non-Indian community looked longingly at the lands of the Umatilla Reservation. In their eyes, the land was too good to be wasted on Indians who they judged had no design to "improve" it. They thought that something should be done to put this fine land to what they considered the best use possible—agriculture.

The area of the Umatilla Reservation was further changed by the congressional acts of August 5, 1882, which removed one square mile—640 acres—for the City of Pendleton; the Slater Act on March 3, 1885, which called for the reduction of the reservation to 120,000 acres; the action on June 29, 1888, that authorized expansion of the reservation to 158,000 acres; and the authorization given by the Secretary of the Interior on August 18, 1939, to return 14,000 acres of south reservation lands still owned by the federal government to reservation status. The Secretary of the Interior issued an order restoring those 14,000 acres to reservation status on March 20, 1940, increasing the acreage to 172,000. The current Umatilla Reservation boundary—also known as the "diminished" boundary—includes all of these lands.

The information assembled in this atlas illustrates the complex reality that the Treaty language obscures. The Treaty language and terminology used to define the reserved lands—that is, the Umatilla Reservation—consistently described natural terrain features as "markers." Article 1 of the Treaty of 1855 describes the Umatilla Reservation:

Commencing in the middle of the channel of Umatilla River opposite the mouth of Wild Horse Creek, thence up the middle of the channel of said creek to its source, thence southerly to a point in the Blue Mountains, known as Lee's



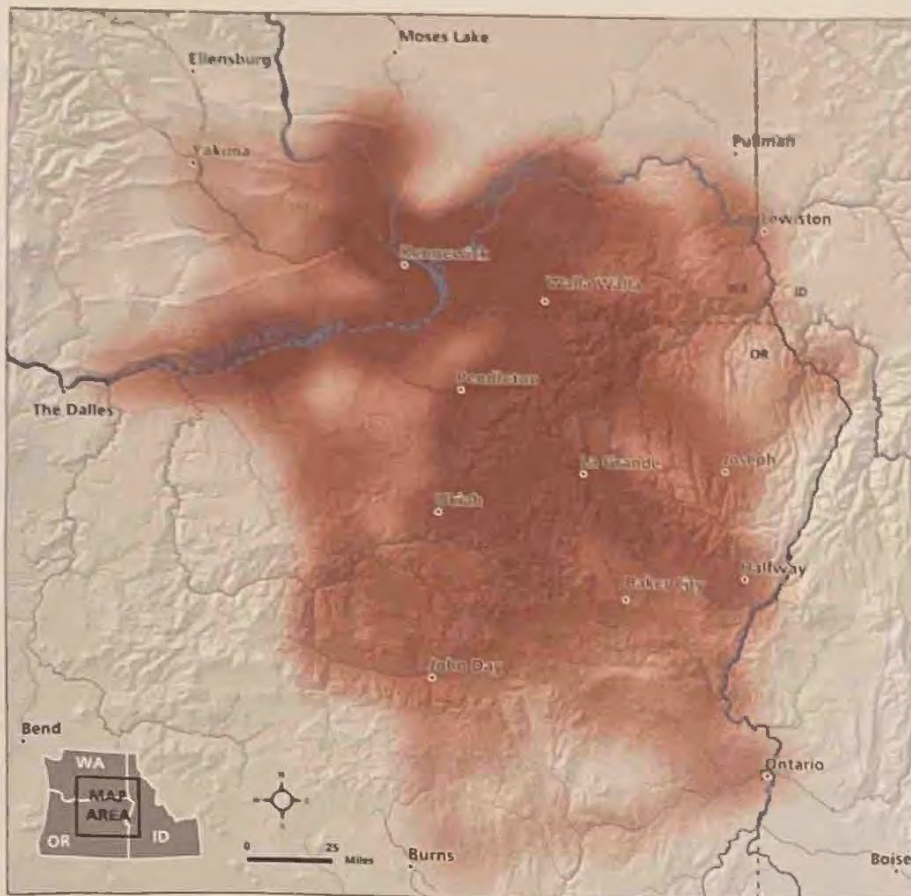
AREAS

- Surveyed Treaty Boundary:** In 1871, the reservation boundary was surveyed for the federal government. The Treaty of 1855 described an area of 512,000 acres. This boundary contains only approximately 245,000 acres.
- Eastern Treaty Boundary:** The additional 230,000 acres excluded from the reservation during the Reservation Survey of 1871.
- Diminished Reservation:** The Umatilla Allotment Act (Slater Act) of 1885 authorized the allotment of land to individual Indian families and the diminishment to 120,000 acres.
- Johnson Creek Restoration:** In 1939, a congressional act authorized 14,000 acres of federal lands restored to the Umatilla Reservation.
- Ceded Land:** This area displays lands ceded to the United States in the Treaty of 1855, based on an 1897 Royce interpretation.
- Additional Ceded Lands:** Adjudicated in *CTUIR v. Maison II* (1960) and *CTUIR v. Maison III* (1966).
- Aboriginal Title Lands:** Lands owned and occupied by right of aboriginal possession by a tribe immediately prior to treaty-making. In 1960 and 1966, the U.S. District Court for Oregon described and reaffirmed the exclusive rights of Tribal members for hunting, fishing, and gathering within this boundary (*CTUIR v. Maison II* and *CTUIR v. Maison III*).

POINTS

- | | |
|---------------------------------------|--|
| 1. Tucannon River mouth | 7. Large island below Umatilla River mouth |
| 2. Tucannon River source | 8. Tomah-luke |
| 3. Western limits of Shoshone country | 9. Le Lac (Rattlesnake Ridge) |
| 4. Powder River source | 10. The White Bluffs |
| 5. Willow Creek headwaters | 11. Columbia and Snake Rivers confluence |
| 6. Willow Creek mouth | |

CEDED LANDS. This map identifies points, boundaries, and areas of the traditional territories of the CTUIR.



TRIBAL HEARTLAND. This map represents historically documented use from multiple sources over many generations. It does not include distant locations such as Yellowstone and Willamette Falls.

Encampment, thence in a line to the headwaters of Howtome Creek, thence west to the divide between Howtome and Birch creeks, thence northerly along said divide to a point due west of the southwest corner of William C. McKay's land-claim, thence east along his line to his southeast corner, thence in a line to the place of beginning.

While this description may appear to be straightforward to some, on close examination each phrase creates possible misinterpretation.

Consider this description:

Commencing in the middle of the channel of Umatilla River opposite the mouth of Wild Horse Creek, thence up the middle of the channel of said creek to its source, thence southerly.

This point of origin lies within the city limits of Pendleton and can be readily plotted, and the course of Wildhorse Creek can be easily followed. A point of contention was created, however, when a survey party led by Rodman Wanamaker

in 1871 followed the south fork rather than the north fork of Wildhorse Creek, which cut three miles off the northeast corner of the reservation (points 2a and 2b on Changing Reservation map, p. 52). A prominent physical landmark, the summit of Wildhorse Mountain, is visible from the starting point. The CTUIR argued this point in the ICC Docket 264 in 1966, but to no avail.

The Treaty also refers to "a point in the Blue Mountains, known as Lee's Encampment." The precise location of Lee's Encampment has been a major point of contention since before 1862, when Umatilla Agency Superintendent T.W. Davenport noted in his *Recollections of an Indian Agent* that "the precise place of Lee's Encampment, a point in the reservation boundary, was in dispute without much prospect of being settled."

Federal surveyors and others associated the location of Lee's Encampment with the extensive meadow near where the town of Meacham is now located (point 3b on Changing Reservation map, p. 52). Henry A. G. Lee—who emigrated in 1843 and was an interpreter for subagent

Elijah White, a member of the Oregon territorial governor's three-man peace commission after the Whitman killings, and a major in the Oregon Militia during the Cayuse War—is said to have camped there in the autumn of 1844. Joel Palmer's journal of his 1845 emigration to Oregon indicates that his party followed a road to arrive at Lee's Encampment at the present location of Meacham.

In addition, a diary believed to be the work of David or John Dinwiddie in 1853 mentions stopping at Lee's Encampment and attributes the name to the Reverend Jason Lee, who is said to have camped there after serving some years as a missionary in Oregon. If Jason Lee did camp in the vicinity of present-day Meacham, however, it was on May 19, 1838, on a trip back to the States to enlist support for his mission, and there is nothing notable in Lee's diary of the trip about that site. In August and September 1834, Lee and fur trader Nathaniel Wyeth traveled together on the Walla Walla Trail, a trail that

has been determined with a high degree of probability by the U.S. Forest Service and others familiar with the terrain involved. This route crossed the Grande Ronde River where the stream enters Grande Ronde Valley; it then climbed Fox Hill and traversed the plateau southwest of Mt. Emily to Five Points Creek. From there the trail continued northwest past Sugarloaf Mountain, to the breaks of Meacham Creek Canyon and its tributaries, at Spring Mountain. Here it descended very steeply to the point where Owsley Creek joins East Meacham Creek, continued from there to Meacham Creek, and made an even more difficult ascent of the opposite canyon wall to Horseshoe Ridge. It then proceeded northwest and north, on Horseshoe and Gibbon Ridges, and descended to Squaw Creek at a point three miles above that stream's confluence with Umatilla River. From there the distance to Fort Walla Walla, near the present site of Wallula, was a little over thirty miles (Evans 1991).

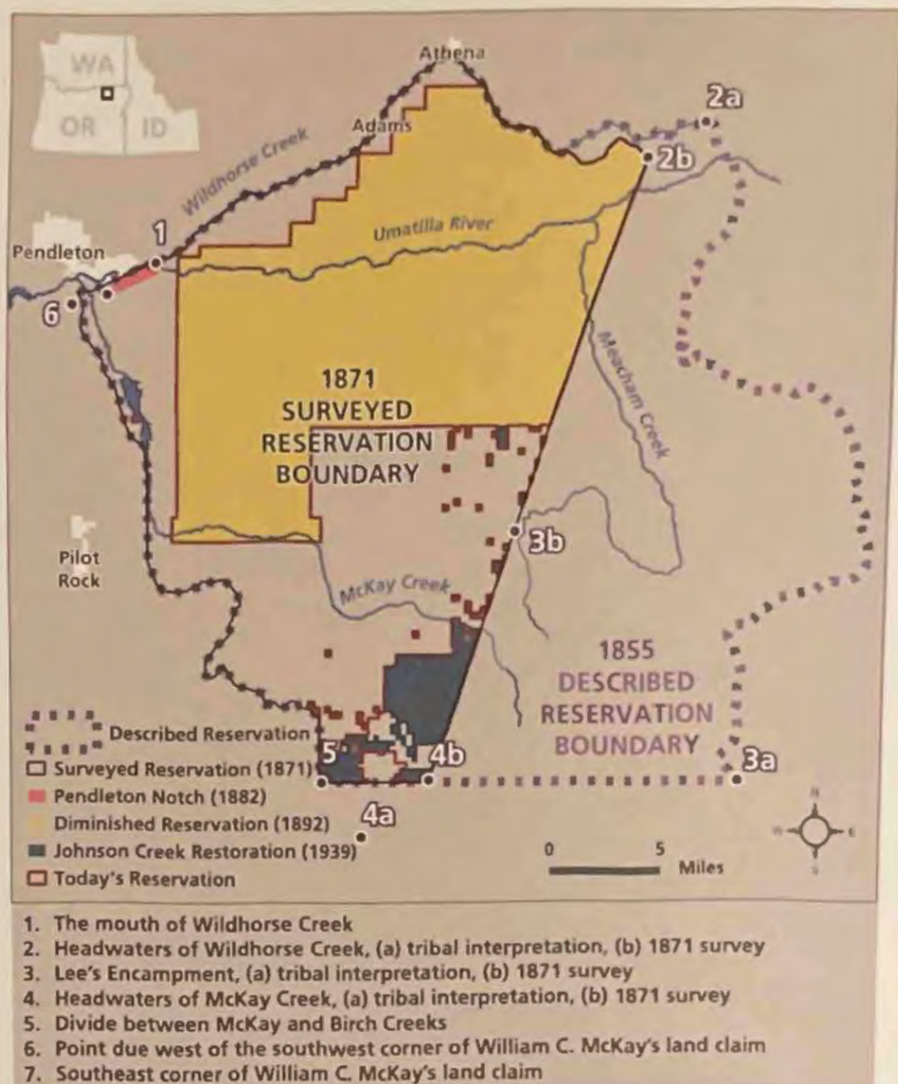
On August 29, Lee's group went from Fox Hill to the foot of Spring Mountain at Meacham Creek. The next day, they went from Meacham Creek to Horseshoe Ridge. There is no indication that the 1834 route took Lee near what is now the town of Meacham.

Conversely, a lengthy description in the diary of Jason Lee refers to August 27 and 28, when the group camped at a place that researcher John Evans defined in *Powerful Rocky* (1991) as the Cayuse summer camp in the Grande Ronde Valley. During this two-day stay, Lee and his nephew Daniel "camped near the Kioos [Cayuse] Village." On August 29, Lee noted that their provisions were nearly spent and recorded:

We were invited to the chief's lodge. Dried salmon, choak cherries and water were set before us, of which we partook and conversed as well as we could by signs and the few words of Nez Perce that we had learned, but we were sadly puzzled to understand each other. The chief of the Walla Walla tribe was there and he showed me some old papers with scraps of writing on them and a calendar showing the day of the month with Sunday distinctly marked—written—I presume by some gentleman of the H. B. [Hudson's Bay] Company. I then, in red ink, wrote my name and Daniel's, stating what we were, dated it and gave it to him and he seemed pleased with it. He soon made a sign for me to follow him, and he took me out and presented me an elegant horse and one of the Kioos presented Daniel a fine horse and one of the fattest I ever saw. We invited them to come to our lodge and in the afternoon two chiefs and others, more than could get into our tent came, and the Kioos chief and a brave, I think, gave me each a horse (Evans 1991).

Lee's party gave gifts in return, of nominal value but prized nonetheless. They smoked, prayed, and sang with the men gathered. The next day Lee was invited to doctor a sick Indian girl, the Walla Walla chief sent a man to find a horse Lee had been given the day before, and the Cayuse chief saw them off. Two chiefs accompanied Lee's party for some miles through thick smoke from recent mountain fires to ensure they would find their route.

Oral histories from at least two Tribal elders indicate that Lee's Encampment was at the confluence of Five Points Creek and the Grande Ronde River, a determination that would expand the Umatilla Reservation and result in a very different eastern boundary (point 3a on Changing Reservation map, p. 52). Most pioneer diaries, however, place



CHANGING RESERVATION. This map identifies the originally described reservation boundary, the ratified treaty boundary, and today's Umatilla Reservation.

Lee's Encampment at a meadow near Meacham, which results in the reduced reservation to the east.

So, while some pioneer diaries of the 1840s placed Lee's Encampment at a high mountain meadow near present-day Meacham, oral traditions of our people have challenged that placement for over 160 years. Tribal oral tradition consistently places Lee's Encampment near the confluence of the Grande Ronde River and Five Points Creek. In addition, Daniel Lee confirms that location in his journal of his travels with Jason Lee, when they met our ancestors near the confluence of the Grande Ronde and Five Points Creek in 1834, long before the Oregon Trail migration commenced.

Further, the transcription of discussions at the Treaty Council provides no evidence that our Tribal leaders thought that Lee's Encampment was a meadow

near present-day Meacham. Our Treaty Council spokesmen unmistakably made clear their desire to live where the salmon ran, where they dug for roots, and where their ancestors are buried. They knew that their grazing needs were extensive, and one specifically named the Touchet, the Tucannon, and the Grande Ronde. It is unreasonable to conclude that they would have agreed to live their time-honored, seasonal lifeways on a part of one river, the Umatilla.

Considering that the modern legal canons of construction require judges to interpret the understanding of treaties as the Indians would have understood them at the time they were made and that the only evidence of what was said is in the Treaty transcript, it is striking that the last reservation that was deliberated on, created, and agreed to at the Walla Walla Council is not discussed on the record.

It was deliberated off the record outside of the primary negotiations and does not appear in the transcripts. Further, it is unlikely and impractical that our leaders would have acquiesced to the diminished reservation, especially since it was supposed to be 512,000 acres, not 245,000 acres as constructed by the straight line, eastern boundary made through the white agents' and surveyors' choice of Lee's Encampment near Meacham.

For these reasons, the dispute over the location of Lee's Encampment is very much alive. It represents a boundary of our nation.

From Lee's Encampment, the Treaty description of the reservation boundary proceeds "thence in a line to the headwaters of Howtome Creek." Here we see for the first time Treaty language requiring a true line. Elsewhere, language such as "to its source, thence southerly to a point" or "thence west to the divide between Howtome and Birch creeks" (which bounds the reservation at the divide between two watersheds), suggests a boundary that follows natural features, as was typical for treaties of the period. In addition, the survey once again erred in not going to the true source of Howtome (now McKay) Creek (points 4A and 4B on Changing Reservation map, p. 48).

There are also many errors and misunderstandings in the Treaty language describing the CTUIR ceded area, which reads:

Commencing at the mouth of the Tocannon [Tucannon] River, in Washington Territory, running thence up said river to its source; thence easterly along the summit of the Blue Mountains, and on the southern boundaries of the purchase made of the Nez Percés Indians,



This survey marker was carved into boulders establishing the Umatilla Reservation boundaries.

and easterly along that boundary to the western limits of the country claimed by the Shoshonees or Snake Indians; thence southerly along that boundary (being the waters of Powder River) to the source of the Powder River, thence to the headwaters of Willow Creek, thence down Willow Creek to the Columbia River, thence up the channel of the Columbia River [from the mouth of Willow Creek] to the lower end of a large island below the mouth of Umatilla River, thence northerly to a point on the Yakama River, called Tomah-luke, thence to Le Lac, thence to the White Banks on the Columbia below Priest's Rapids, thence down the Columbia River to the junction of the Columbia and Snake rivers, thence up the Snake River to the place of beginning [mouth of the Tucannon River].

The description errs at the beginning: "Commencing at the mouth of the Tocannon [Tucannon] River, in Washington Territory, running thence up said river to its source; thence easterly along the summit of the Blue Mountains." From the source of the Tucannon River, one can only proceed "westerly" and then "southerly" along the summit of the Blue Mountains, not "easterly."

Another example of an error appears in the description "thence to the headwaters of Willow Creek, then down Willow Creek to the Columbia River." It is clear that there is no explicit indication of a straight line between the source of the Powder River and that of Willow Creek, yet the reservation boundary between the source and the headwaters was drawn as a straight line, which fails to recognize the traditional Umatilla and Cayuse range by excluding the middle and main forks of the John Day River.

The southern boundary of the ceded area also fails to recognize the exclusive use by Cayuse and Umatilla of the Burnt River basin and sites at the headwaters of the Malheur and Silvies Rivers, which were well known to Tribal informants during Edward Swindell's report on treaty rights in 1941 and 1942. Only a portion of this region was subsequently judged to be part of the Confederated Tribes' exclusive use area by the ICC, which decreed a land claims settlement for the CTUIR in 1960.

Many also argue that Stevens and Palmer misunderstood the reference that appears in the Treaty to "Le Lac," which they thought meant *le lac*, French for 'the

lake'. But there is no lake in the vicinity of the land described at this point in the Treaty. An alternative reading is *Lalik*, the Sahaptin name of the easternmost prominence of Rattlesnake Ridge. This is a most salient point of reference for local Indian people.

The description "thence to the White Banks on the Columbia below Priest's Rapids" is ambiguous. The highest and most prominent point along the twenty-mile arc of the White Bluffs is near their northern extremity, where the Columbia River bends sharply to the south heading downstream. The 1855 Treaty map line, however, connects to a point on the Columbia River at the southern end of the White Bluffs. This point is above where "Priest Rapids" is plotted near present-day Richland, Washington, fifty miles downstream from the real Priest Rapids.

For the over 160 years since the Treaty was signed, we have lived with this language and its consequences. Many continue to challenge the interpretations of the Treaty, and the Tribes continue to educate the public about the form of property ownership we practiced before the Treaty. Whether or not we own the homeland—the land beyond the reservation that was ceded to the federal government in the Treaty—we care for it as if we own it with our neighbors. None of the modern boundaries negate our promise to the Creator. Our Tribal teachers, leaders, officials, managers, and attorneys, as well as members who fish, hunt, gather, and graze livestock toil to ensure that the promises made in the Treaty of 1855 are upheld. We all understand that our ancestors made the Treaty so that we may continue our way of life without end. ■

Patánaknuwíša Naamípa *Awtnipamápa* 'They Are Protecting Our Sacred and Traditional Sites'

Wapayta'waat Ko'omayn (Teara Farrow Ferman), CTUIR Cultural Resources Protection Program Manager, and
Audie Huber, Intergovernmental Affairs, CTUIR Department of Natural Resources

In the course of this research, information on villages, campsites, and natural and cultural resource areas has been compiled so that our Tribal community and the general public can gain an appreciation for the wealth of traditional land use in the ancestral homelands of the three Tribes. Just as important is the amount of culturally sensitive information that is not shared. The Tribes have a responsibility to the land, to everything on it, and to generations past, present, and future to keep these areas protected and undisturbed.

In 1987, the CTUIR developed the Cultural Resources Protection Program to actively work with federal agencies on archaeological decision-making processes on both CTUIR lands and lands ceded by the CTUIR to the United States in the Treaty of 1855. The CRPP routinely educates federal, state, and local agencies on cultural resource laws, executive orders, and Tribal concerns. CRPP provides services to these agencies to keep them in compliance with cultural resource laws. Its mission is to promote "the protection, preservation, and perpetuation of the CTUIR's culturally significant places and resources for the benefit of current and future generations."

CRPP provides training to federal agencies regarding cultural sensitivity, Tribal cultural resource management, and Tribal perspectives on natural resource management. These creative approaches have changed the archaeological community in the CTUIR's ceded lands, from one in which there was no Indian involvement to one that requires Indian involvement. Incorporating our ancestors' traditional cultural knowledge into archaeological methods has made the archaeological community aware that tribes have always managed archaeological sites, sacred sites, and traditional use areas.

We are acutely aware of the negative consequences that can occur from sharing

sensitive information with the public. Intentionally, this atlas shares no sacred ceremonial information. Since the first non-Indians arrived in our territory, there has been a continual misappropriation of our traditional knowledge and the land that has shaped it. There are those, for example, who still plunder the graves of our ancestors for their own profit. We have concluded that safeguards and warnings must be in place to ensure that the risks of sharing cultural knowledge are minimized. That is why, in this atlas, we do not emphasize specific place name locations.

The Archaeological Resources Protection Act seeks to protect archaeological sites containing artifacts greater than a hundred years old that are located on federal land. The act requires anyone seeking to excavate an archaeological site to obtain a permit from the appropriate land management agency, and permits are issued only to qualified applicants. Those who excavate without a permit or who "sell, purchase, exchange, transport, receive, or offer to sell, purchase, or exchange any archaeological resource" that was removed without a permit, may be committing a felony.

Oregon requires a permit for archaeological excavations on nonfederal public and private land. Without this permit, a person may not knowingly and intentionally excavate, injure, destroy, or alter an archaeological site or object or remove an archaeological object.

Oregon offers further protection to burials. A person may not willfully remove, mutilate, deface, injure, or destroy the cairn or grave of any Native American. It is also illegal to possess any "Native Indian" artifacts or human remains taken from a native cairn or grave. It is illegal to publicly display or exhibit "Native Indian" human remains or sell any native Indian artifacts or human remains taken from any native cairn or

grave. Any discovered remains suspected to be native must be reported to the state police, the State Historic Preservation Office, the appropriate tribe, and the Oregon State Commission on Indian Services.

The State of Washington prohibits the knowing removal, mutilation, defacement, injury, or destruction of "any cairn or grave of any native Indian, or any glyptic or painted record of any tribe or peoples." It is criminal on both state and private land to "knowingly remove, alter, dig into, or excavate by use of any mechanical, hydraulic, or other means, or to damage, deface, or destroy any historic or prehistoric archaeological resource or site, or remove any archaeological object from such site."

All of these laws are aimed at stemming losses that have been inflicted upon us. In a very real sense, it is our intent that this atlas be a positive influence in reducing the loss. It is another step in our cultural endurance. ■



A stemmed basalt projectile point is recorded and left in place.

PART 2. PLACE NAMES AND MAPS

Tiičaminšmí Sukwanáwit
'Epistemology of the Land'

Uytpamá Kútkut 'The First Work'

Wišpúš (Eugene S. Hunn) and Weyétmascaimay (Jennifer Karson Engum)

We have several people that still say we shouldn't talk about our Indian ways and our Indian beliefs and our Indian places, because it's sacred. But how are we going to protect those if we don't share it? Share that information with somebody. There was a time in my life when I used to feel like I didn't want anything publicized. I did not want to tell anybody. I just feel this is the only way they'll learn is if I put it on tape and someday they'll go to where the tapes will be and they could see it there.

—Átway Yayáxwacaimay
(Elizabeth Jones)

The information you have gathered from the elders is very important....I say, Go for it! Because I think all these young kids should know.

—Átway Hiyoomlaafat
(Ernestine Watters)

I was given this knowledge and if I do not share it, it will be me who has stolen it. I would be taking this knowledge to my grave.

—Kakínas
(E. Thomas Morning Owl)

Much traditional knowledge of the CTUIR homeland has been laid to rest, yet what remains is sufficient to demonstrate the intimate connections of people and land throughout the traditional country. Many Tribal people have been courageous in their efforts to document this information for contemporary and future generations in the community.

One could say that all that is known of Tribal history and Tribal ways of life is a quilt sewn of the memories of individual people who lived that history and who knew that way of life. The Confederated Tribes of the Umatilla Indian Reservation is comprised of those who have lived on this land in the company of family and community. Čáw Pawá Láakni retells only a small part of the story of the lives of the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla peoples and neighboring tribes and bands.

In making this atlas, we have used anthropological research records, including Indian Claims Commission (ICC) documents and many published and unpublished sources. We reviewed linguistic materials, from the earliest studies made of the languages to the work being conducted by present-day native and non-native scholars. We conducted interviews with individuals who,

in their own travels, have gone on the same food-gathering forays from the past to the present, following the paths of their ancestors. These oral histories of moving across the land indicate the fluid sense of territoriality that was influenced by the seasonal availability of foods and medicines.

A considerable amount of what we know today about the aboriginal occupation of this country is due to the efforts of a small number of speakers and scholars who were often compelled by legal circumstances to make a systematic record. Several sources are of outstanding importance. In 1941, the Bureau of Indian Affairs commissioned a report from Edward B. Swindell Jr., an attorney with the Los Angeles office of the U.S. Indian Service. Swindell was charged with conducting "an exhaustive study of the hunting and fishing rights of the Indians, particularly those founded on early treaties or agreements." His 481-page report, submitted in July 1942, included affidavits from ancestors from throughout the Pacific Northwest. They included CTUIR members (with ages as of May 1942) Čáyaw Gilbert Minthorn (66), Čáyaw George Red Hawk (80), Čáyaw Mrs. Young Chief, (85) Čáyaw James Kash Kash (79), Átway James Billy (63), Átway Tom Joe (72), Átway Jim Kanine (70), Átway Imowtanic (79), Átway Felicite (79), with Čáyaw Gilbert E. Conner (44), Átway Phillip Guyer (40), and Átway Andrew Barnhart (62) interpreting. Their testimonies were recorded in Swindell's voluminous report.

In response to Swindell's inquiries, the CTUIR organized a series of field trips to locate and document—with photographs, when possible—important fishing, hunting, and gathering sites within the multi-tribal traditional use area. The report, "The Confederated Tribes of the Umatilla Indian Reservation Accustomed Fishing Sites, 1941," documents thirty-four Cayuse sites, fifty-three Umatilla sites, and thirty-three Walla Walla sites, each named in the Indian languages and dialects of the respective tribes. The effort was organized by a Tribal survey board that included Čáyaw George Red Hawk, Čáyaw



Átway Dan Motanic and Leah Conner reviewing place names information

Gilbert Minthorn, *Átway* Dave Temple, and *Cá'yaw* Gilbert E. Conner. Cayuse sites were attested primarily by *Cá'yaw* George Red Hawk and *Cá'yaw* Gilbert Minthorn, with help from *Cá'yaw* James Kash Kash, *Cá'yaw* Ipnatala (Louise Blackelk), *Cá'yaw* Mrs. Young Chief, *Cá'yaw* Dora Lloyd, *Cá'yaw* Dorothy Shewatus, and *Cá'yaw* Mitchell Lloyd. Umatilla sites were attested by *Átway* Jim Billy, *Átway* William Barnhart, and *Átway* Tom Joe, with help from *Átway* Jim Kanine and *Átway* Imowtanic; Walla Walla sites were attested by *Átway* Jim Kanine and *Átway* Imowtanic, with help from *Átway* Felicite. In addition to specifying the names and locations to each of these sites, information on Tribal utilization and species harvested was systematically recorded. This inventory was listed in testimony before the ICC prior to its final judgment in 1966 and was later published by Robert J. Suphan (1974) and Barbara and Robert Lane (1979).

The fishing-site survey conducted by the CTUIR in 1941 indicates that only 18 of the 120 sites are attributed to a single tribe, two for the Cayuse, four for the Umatilla, and twelve for the Walla Walla. It is likely that even at these sites, relatives and acquaintances from other tribes were welcomed, at least as guests. The testimony of elders has helped clarify these relationships.

In many earlier records, the place names cited were written with English approximations, and in some cases proper pronunciations have been lost. Thus, it has been a major undertaking to reconstruct the form and original meaning of these names. Tribal linguists Noel Rude and Pinawoolenmay (Modesta Minthorn) and coauthors *Pítamyanon Maqsmáqs* (Phillip Cash Cash) and *Kakínaš* (E. Thomas Morning Owl) have generously assisted in working with these materials.

Now-Tow-look (Click Relander), Yakima newspaperman, sculptor, and author, recorded extensive notes on place names of the Wanapum and Palouse people. Much of the information he gathered was published in *Drummers and Dreamers* (1956). Without the benefit of linguistic training, Relander rendered Indian words as best he could using informal English spellings. Although we cannot always reconstitute reasonable pronunciations of the names from Relander's renditions, we are thankful for his efforts.



A tribal member surveys the dry Umatilla River for a 1949 fishing-site survey.

Verne F. Ray was hired by the CTUIR to document traditional land use and occupation in preparation for testimony in support of the CTUIR's claims before the ICC (Docket 264) in 1960. Subsequent to Dr. Ray's passing in 2004 at age 100, his personal files were deposited at Gonzaga University, and Tamástslikt staff were able to review and copy relevant notes. Dr. Ray's testimony, maps, and notes have been invaluable. His information on the Lower Snake River Walla Walla harvest sites came primarily from *Átway* *Hí'mtuútsa'ki'* (also known as Pishook, Harry Jim). His information on sites in the Umatilla, Grande Ronde, and Powder River basins came primarily from *Átway* *Wahstútsiis* (Ike Patrick) and *Átway* *Šaxlatámo* (Art Motanic). Ray recorded this information on several tours during the summer of 1957.

In his ICC testimony, Dr. Ray noted a number of sites without recording their Indian names (documented in this atlas as NR, not recorded). In a number of instances, those names were recorded in his handwritten notes, expanding the inventory of named sites. The transcriptions are phonetic, but in many cases English-based spellings cannot provide an accurate record of native language. Anthropologist and linguist *Lučá Lamtáx* (Bruce Rigsby) and Sahaptin language instructor *Tuxámšiš* (Virginia Beavert) greatly assisted with the interpretation of these names.

These primary resources complemented primary research and ethnographic field notes of prior work conducted by *Lučá*

Lamtáx (Bruce J. Rigsby) and *Wišpúš* (Eugene S. Hunn) with Columbia River peoples over several decades. During Tamástslikt Cultural Institute's Convocation 2001, Sahaptin regional place names collected by Hunn were presented to the Tamástslikt staff and became the foundation and impetus for this project.

Pítamyanon Maqsmáqs (Phillip E. Cash Cash) prepared an exhaustive analysis of ninety "Indigenous Place Names of the Wallowa Country" for the Wallowa Band Nez Perce Trail Interpretive Center. His report, "*Waláawapkiñix* 'from the Wallowa Country,'" draws heavily on a massive compilation by the amateur historian and ethnographer Jacob H. Horner of Wallowa, Oregon. Cash Cash provides careful and systematic linguistic analyses and intriguing reflections on some of the more culturally complex entries.

We also relied on many clues from historical documents, such as the journals of Meriwether Lewis and William Clark and David Thompson, where their routes crossed our region.

Verne Ray, for example, interviewed *Átway* *Hí'mtuútsa'ki'* (Harry Jim) in October 1956 in preparation for testimony before the ICC on behalf of the CTUIR. Jim's father was Palouse and his mother Umatilla. Born in the late 1880s, he grew up around Walla Walla and had extensive knowledge of the Snake and Columbia Rivers confluence region. Jim's evidence includes nearly one hundred named villages, camps,



Átway James Selam informs Phillip Cash Cash and others about rock imagery on the Columbia River.

and resource harvest sites, the majority of them clustered near his primary home base on the Lower Snake River near Fishhook Bend, now flooded by Ice Harbor Dam. His daughter, Átway Ximstanik (Mary Jim), fought until her final days for recognition of the cultural heritage that had been destroyed by the dam. This atlas is built on the testimony of elders such as Átway Hi'mtuutsa'ki' and Átway Ximstanik.

The esteemed elders and teachers who have contributed their time and knowledge to this project or to earlier projects that informed this one include Átway Wahtustiis (Ike Patrick), Átway Páaxat Saxlatámo (Art Motanic), Átway Twáway (Inez Spino-Reves), Átway Wáutaša (Louis Spino), Átway Tekípš (Dan Motanic), Átway Kutaputnay (Eva Watchman), Átway Pa'awuniin (Jasper Shippentower), Átway Pástin Áyat (Emily Littlefish), Tiyapóolašaimay (Joan Burnside), Átway Inpáatainwenmi (Viola Wocatsie), Cá'yaw Á'A Tóhon (Eugene John), Nacomus (Joan Watlamet), Tuxámšiš (Virginia Beavert), Sapsakáan (Jerry Meninick), Átway Kístinway (Agnes Billy Mark), Átway Lasáyat (Louise Billy), Átway Yayáxwacaimay (Elizabeth Jones), Átway Tilaaknút (Howard Jim), Átway Likslaway (Rose John), Átway Sapwaanayit (Lavina Washines), Tamaslút (Mavis George Kindness), Átway Slilwal (James Selam), Átway Yáystani (Deltie Albert Selam), Átway Sísawaypam (Sara Quaempts), Átway Wáwluway (Elsie Pistolhead),

Átway Xluxín (Charlie McKay), Cá'yaw Tamáslawtakikt (Agnes Davis), Yaq'ax' Ilp' Ilp (Milton Davis), and Cá'yaw' Ipelikitemuucet (Frank Andrews).

In order to produce an ethnogeographic cultural atlas of place names in the native languages, many language speakers and linguists were consulted on issues of orthography, diacritics, dialect, and place-name variants. Two review sessions were conducted at Tamástslíkt Cultural Institute for this purpose. Elders traveled from nearby reservations such as Yakama and Colville, and scholars came from Arizona and Australia. Seventeen participated in all, with eleven conducting the review of the Sahaptin dialects and six conducting the review of the Cayuse Nez Perce dialect. We are forever grateful to those who gave of their time and focused energy in these marathon review sessions. Their names are listed with the contributors above.

Tananmí Waničt Patášukwaša —'Native Place Names in Collective Memory'

This atlas documents 544 named sites and 61 not recorded places known by the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla people within the traditional primary use area of the three confederated tribes, which encompasses approximately 12,000 square miles—somewhat fewer than one place name for every twenty square miles. It is clear that many names for culturally significant places within this traditional territory have been lost

through time. We can roughly estimate the extent of this loss.

In 1994, in an article in *Current Anthropologist*, Eugene Hunn analyzed the relationship between toponymic density (the number of place names per square mile) and population density (the number of people living within that same area). He was surprised to discover that there appeared to be a very strong correlation between the two densities. One possible explanation is that human memory is structured so that each person can hold in memory approximately 500 place names. As population density increases, the life-space each person occupies shrinks while the individual's inventory of place names remains constant. This, of course, would be the case only for societies "living off the land"—that is, subsisting on the natural resources of a home territory. If this relationship were to hold for the Cayuse, Umatilla, and Walla Walla peoples, how many place names might we expect the ancestors of the confederated tribes to have recognized?

To arrive at a reasonable estimate, we need to understand the size of the life-space of an individual person at first contact with whites. Fortunately, we have one such contemporary account, a "travel narrative" recorded by linguist Melville Jacobs in 1929 from Jim Yoke, a Cowlitz elder who talked to Jacobs in his native Northwest Sahaptin dialect. Yoke insisted that Jacobs record verbatim his story of Coyote's travels through his home country, naming each place as he traveled along the rivers and across the ridges of his known world. Jacobs recorded 273 place names within the 7,000 square miles Yoke traveled during his long life—that is, 0.04 named places per square mile. This falls short of 500 places, but it is unlikely that Yoke included every known place name in a single narrative. If he had known 500 place names, the toponymic density for Cowlitz Sahaptin would have been more like 0.07 per square mile. Thus, the more than six hundred places recorded in this atlas might represent 68 percent of the original total, a loss of over 30 percent of the original inventory. ■

Naamí Watíkš

'Our Tracks'

This atlas details more than six hundred places of special importance to Tribal members of the Confederated Tribes of the Umatilla Indian Reservation. The names of the great majority of these places are in the native languages of the Tribes. For practical purposes, we grouped the regions by color-coded riverine areas, using the lay of the land as our guide rather than adhering strictly to original language or dialect of each place name.

We begin with the Umatilla winter villages and fisheries on the Columbia River above Celilo Falls, then move up the Columbia through the Wallula Gap, passing the mouths of the Snake and Yakima Rivers, to the White Bluffs. Along the way, we visit Umatilla and Walla Walla winter villages and fishing sites along the Columbia, including the Willow Creek drainage, and the lower Yakima River. From the White Bluffs we back track to the mouth of the Snake.

We then pass the many Walla Walla Snake River villages and fisheries to the Palouse and Tucannon Rivers and up the Snake to the edge of Nez Perce country.

We then return to the Walla Walla River and trace Cayuse settlements into the western Blue Mountains, crossing the low divide to the upper Umatilla River and its western tributaries, then westward to the John Day River. From here we follow the Umatillas in their spring and summer pursuit of roots and game south across the forks of the John Day River, then over the divide southeast into the Malheur and Burnt river basins to where they meet the Upper Snake River.

Finally, we loop back north via the Powder River into the upper Grande Ronde River and Catherine Creek basins between the Blue and Wallowa Mountains, then down the Grande Ronde to the Wallowa River and over to Joseph Creek and the Imnaha River into the Snake River gorge. This completes a grand tour of the CTUIR ancestral homeland.

List of Elements

In the preceding section of this atlas, there was detailed discussion of a number of attributes of each site. These attributes include traditional uses of the site (e.g.,

camping, hunting, fishing, gathering); seasons of use (permanent village or seasonal camp); and the peoples using the site (Cayuse, Umatilla, Walla Walla, Nez Perce, and/or members of other tribes). To facilitate quick browsing through this list of sites in search of specific information about the attributes, there are icons associated with each site to indicate the presence or absence of these activities, or attributes. For instance, if you are interested in traditional fishing, you can quickly move through the list of places, and just read those that are associated with fishing activities.

Map Key

Blue	Water (lakes, streams, and rivers)
Black	Places (points)
Brown	Areas (mountain ranges, meadows, etc.)
Grey	Trails

We do not have recorded names for some of the places referenced in this atlas. On the maps, those places are referenced using NR (for not recorded) and a number identifying the site (e.g., **NR147**).

Icon Key

USES



Winter Village



Seasonal Camp



Plant Foods



Materials & Medicines



Myth Age Site



Fishing



Hunting



Trade



Grazing



Trail

TRIBES



Cayuse



Umatilla

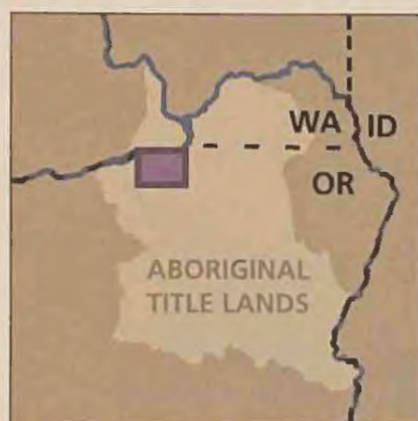


Walla Walla



Other Tribes

Columbia River above Paterson, past the Umatilla River



Imatalam [Sahaptin CR] 'lots of rocks' • Near the mouth of the Umatilla River • Both sides of the mouth of the Umatilla River were occupied by this important winter village. It was the center of an important berry-picking and root-gathering territory, as well as the site of salmon fishing operations. Trails led from here to the mountains, where elk, antelope, and deer were hunted. Grazing lands for horses were available, and much horse breeding was done here. Nez Perce speakers on the Umatilla Reservation have referred

to the people here as *Hiyowátalaampu*.

Imatalam Wána [Sahaptin CR] 'rocky river' • The Umatilla River • This river bears the same name as the village at its mouth and the people who lived there. The Nez Perce and Cayuse refer to this river as *Hiyowátalam*, which translates as 'river that ends at a distance'. The river runs through the heart of the Umatilla Reservation.

Iyuyi [Sahaptin CR] • On the north side of the Columbia River, downriver from the mouth of the Umatilla River • This was a Umatilla fishing campsite.

Kpiskpispá [Sahaptin CR] 'cold place' • Near Cold Springs, just above Hat Rock State Park on the south side of the Columbia River. In addition to a gathering area, this was also a popular jackrabbit hunting area in the early twentieth century.

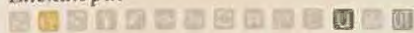
Kulkuliipa [Sahaptin CR] 'at the bowls' • On the Umatilla River near Three Mile Falls Dam • This was a camp for curing fish and dip net fishing for salmon, lamprey, and trout. The "bowls" alluded to are rock formations carved in the bedrock of the river, now flooded by the dam. These formations are memorialized in a story in which *Tiskáaya* (Skunk) plays the key role, ultimately forming the dramatic volcanic formation known as Hermiston Butte, which overlooks this site on the east.

Lickawpa [Cayuse Nez Perce] 'at the basket cap' • The name and location of Hat Rock in Hat Rock State Park, along the Columbia River near Umatilla, Oregon • The name refers to a similarity between the Hat Rock image and a Plateau woman's hat. Warm Springs tribal member Wilson Wewa Jr. remembers traveling there as a boy: "When I was a little guy, our grandpa Rufus Wolf would visit us in Warm Springs. After the visit we would take him home to the Umatilla Rez and we would go along



Wánaqít

the Columbia River. There were three places that I remember he told us about: the Coyote village below Rock Creek, Washington, Hat Rock, and the Coyotes Daughters or wives near Wallula. All three had names. He called Hat Rock *Lúckasípa*.”



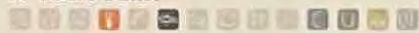
Misqalu [Sahaptin CR] ‘earwax’ • Upstream on the Umatilla River, not far from its mouth • At this fishing site used by the Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River people, fishing for salmon and eel was done by dip net and gaff. At a camp nearby, they dried the fish and lamprey.



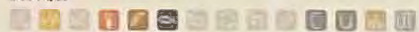
Nčí Wána [Sahaptin CR] ‘big river’ • The Columbia River • The name for the middle course of the Columbia River, flowing south out of Washington State and turning west to form the border between Washington and Oregon toward the Pacific Ocean. Its largest tributary is the Snake River.

The Columbia and its tributaries have been used for transportation since ancient times, linking the native groups of the region, whose villages and fishing sites lined the river. The river system hosts many species of anadromous fish, which migrate between freshwater habitats and the Pacific Ocean. Salmon and other fish provided the core subsistence for Columbia River tribes, who still maintain treaty fishing rights along the river. People throughout the region traveled to the Columbia to trade for fish and

other foods and material, most notably at Celilo Falls.



Pišxú [Sahaptin CR] ‘rabbitbrush’ • On the Columbia River, near McNary Dam on the Washington shore • This was a shared camp of people from several different communities, such as Umatilla, Walla Walla, Yakama, and Cayuse. Named for the rabbitbrush that grew here, there is also a place with the same name near Pasco, crossing the Snake River.



Pišxuwiyípa [Sahaptin CR] ‘has rabbitbrush place’ • Near Nolin, Oregon, on the Umatilla River • This was a popular jackrabbit-hunting area in the early twentieth century.



Tamalám [Sahaptin CR] ‘ford, gravel bank in river’ • On the Columbia River, opposite the mouth of the Umatilla River • This was a large root-digging base, fishing site, and trail camp. According to *Atway Likslaway* (Rose John), “from where the Umatilla River flows into the Columbia, there again my people used to catch the salmon and the eel...there was our land for living. All my people from



Tkúpa

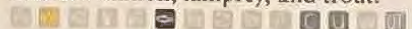


Liickawpa

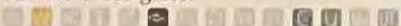
my maternal grandmother's family lived there, and her father and grandfather. And everywhere he had fishing places, *wápyaš*. He had drying sheds—he had them here and there. There were more Indians living there than just my great grandfather. That one had a five fire tule house.”



Tapatúkas [Sahaptin CR] ‘fish with a set net’ • Upstream from the town of Umatilla on the Umatilla River • This fishing site was adjacent to two additional named sites that were jointly utilized by the Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River people. They dip netted and gaffed here for salmon, lamprey, and trout.

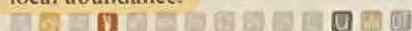


Twahaytkqitkawaswáakul [Sahaptin CR] ‘looks like a grapple hook on the end of a pole’ • Upstream from the town of Umatilla, along the Umatilla River • This site and Waluumkas were identified as traditional fishing sites used by the Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River people. Fish caught here included salmon, trout, and lamprey, which were caught by dip net and by gaffing. The term *wáakul* is used in many naming situations where there is introduced terminology and a resemblance to a native word is evoked, such as *saysaywáakul* ‘resembles maggots’ for rice or *éukš wáakul* ‘resembles obsidian’ for glass.

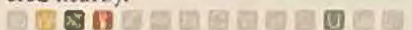


Tkúpa [Sahaptin CR] ‘tule place’ • In the vicinity of Echo, Oregon, near the mouth

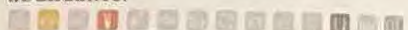
of Alkali Creek • The site of a permanent Umatilla camp where tule bulrush reeds were gathered. The popularity of tules in place names in this area suggests the key economic role of the plant and its local abundance.



Tkúpa [Sahaptin CR] ‘tule place’ • On the south side of the Columbia River, between Umatilla and Cold Springs, Oregon • This was a spring and summer camp of the Umatilla. Chokecherries, berries, cous, and other roots were gathered nearby.



Tkúpa [Sahaptin CR] ‘tule place’ • Irrigon, Oregon • This place name refers to the hard-stem bulrush plant caled tule. It is known as *Tkú* in Sahaptin and *Tóko* in Nez Perce. The popularity of tules in place names in this area suggests the key economic role of the plant and its local abundance.



Waluumkas [Sahaptin CR] • Upstream from Umatilla on the Umatilla River • This is one of three fishing sites grouped together at this location. All three fishing and campsites were used by the Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River Indians. Salmon, trout, and lamprey were caught

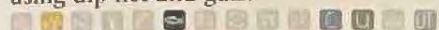


Imatalam

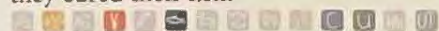


Walúumkas

using dip net and gaff.



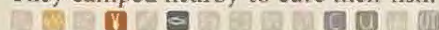
Wanátpa [Sahaptin CR] 'to fade away, disappear' • On the Umatilla River, above the mouth • This fishing site was used by the Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River people for dip netting for salmon and eels. They camped nearby, where they cured their fish.



Wánaqit [Sahaptin CR] 'river's end/edge'

• Near McNary, Oregon, also the site of the tribal wildlife refuge • Umatilla, Cayuse, and Columbia River people fished salmon and eel here using dip nets.

They camped nearby to cure their fish.



Xúlulupa [Sahaptin CR] 'rapids in the river' • On the north side of the Columbia River, above the mouth of the Umatilla River, opposite Cold Springs

• This Umatilla summer fishing village was devoted to dip netting and the drying of salmon. In his journal, William Clark noted twelve Indian lodges on two islands in a stretch of "very bad rapid" (Mill Rock Rapid) at this point.



Yasulúusa [Sahaptin CR] 'sitting partly in the water' • On the Columbia River

near McNary Dam, opposite Umatilla, Oregon • There was a special fishing rock here, which stood directly across from the village of Umatilla and was likely closely associated with the village of *Tamalam*. It was a fishing site for Umatilla and Columbia River people who caught salmon here by dip net. It was one of Rose John's great-grandfather's fishing places.

Silusi Butte is likely directly above this site, as the butte has borrowed its name from the fishing site at its foot. The fishing rock called to mind the well-known myth of the Sun's wives in which the Cascade volcanoes compete to be the first to catch the Sun's rays each morning. In this version, the first wife, *Wáxšam*, has her head blown off, which lands seventy-five miles to the east at *Yasulúusa*. Her body is Simcoe Butte and includes the extensive meadow at its base, in Klickitat country.



Imatalam, at the mouth of the Umatilla River